Toward Collective Model Intelligence: Characterizing and Coordinating Models

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Abstract

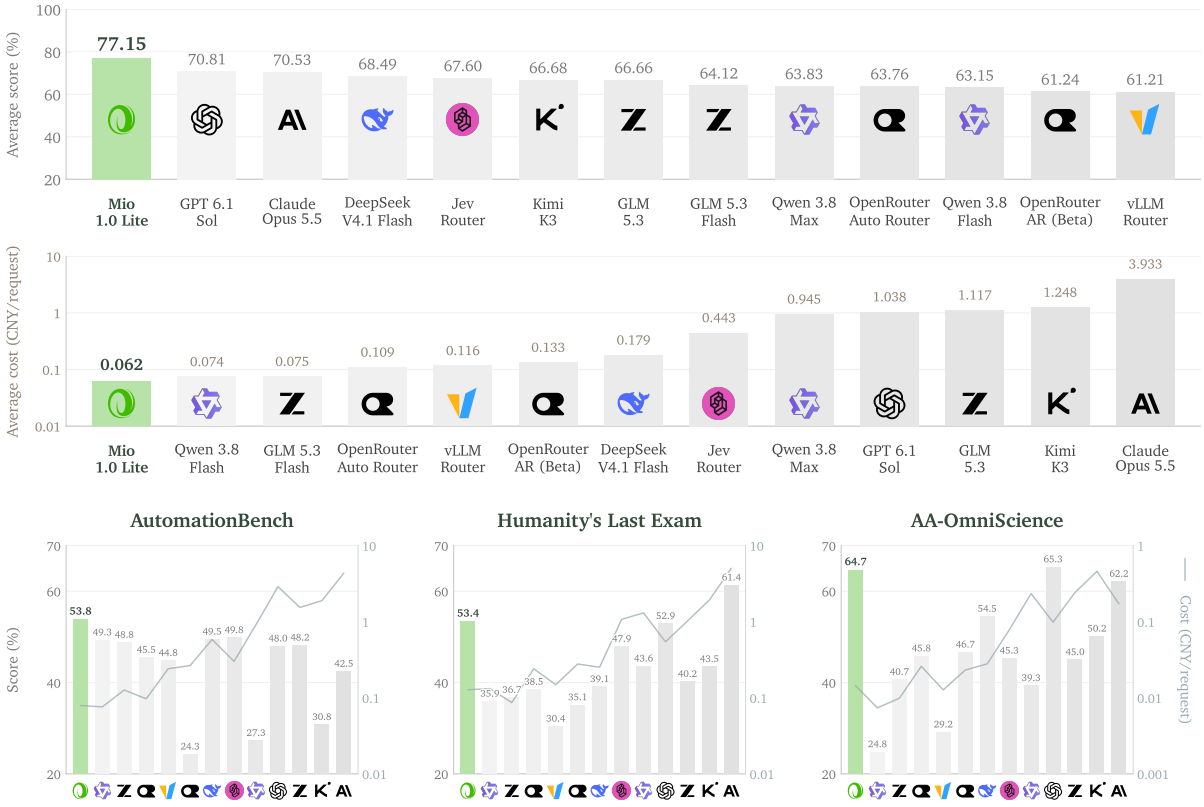
Independently developed AI models accumulate diverse and complementary capabilities, but a growing model collection does not automatically realize *Collective AI*. Addressing this gap requires *understanding model capabilities with limited evaluation, organizing complementary models to collaborate on diverse tasks, and executing model calls efficiently under resource constraints*. We present a systematic approach to pursuing *Collective Model Intelligence* through three connected components. First, Model Eval constructs evidence-based capability profiles by combining query-level performance estimation with cross-domain prediction, reducing the need for exhaustive evaluation. Second, Mio (Models in One) organizes complementary model candidates and supports task-conditioned, cost-aware selection and collaboration as task requirements evolve. Third, Mos (Model Serving OS) separates model selection from execution and provides endpoint scheduling and shared model deployment and distribution. Experiments show lower capability-estimation errors under limited evaluation. Across nine public benchmarks, Mio 1.0 Lite achieves the highest average score and lowest average cost among compared methods, with per-request costs 73.7–97.5% lower than those of the best-scoring alternatives. A prewarmed shared cache accelerates model-file retrieval by up to 23.3×. This work lays a foundation for Collective Model Intelligence by characterizing and coordinating the diverse capabilities of an expanding model universe.

Mio 1.0 Lite

Collaboration among cost-efficient models from China.

Average performance and cost across benchmarks

AutomationBench · Humanity's Last Exam (w/o tools) · AA-OmniScience · GPQA Diamond · PinchBench · BFCL V3 Base · QwenClawBench · MT-Bench · IFBench



Mio 1.0 Lite achieves the highest average score and lowest average cost, with per-request costs 73.7–97.5% lower than those of the best-scoring alternatives across benchmarks (full results across all benchmarks: see Section 6.1).

1 From Individual Models to Collective AI

1.1 The Expanding Model Universe

AI resources are distributed across organizations and environments. Datasets, trained models, domain expertise, and computation cannot always be brought together because of privacy, ownership, and communication constraints. Independent training adds new models, while continued adaptation changes the capabilities of existing ones. Together, these processes sustain an expanding and evolving *model universe*: a population of models developed or adapted across organizations, datasets, and task settings. Models differ in architecture, modality, and specialization; even those derived from the same foundation model can develop distinct strengths through adaptation.

These models embody knowledge and skills accumulated across developers, datasets, and tasks. Their diversity creates opportunities to reuse complementary capabilities [32]. A system can realize additional value by understanding these capabilities, organizing complementary models, and coordinating their contributions to tasks.

We pursue this opportunity through *Collective AI*: coordinating distributed data, computational resources, and intelligent capabilities to learn, reason, and act at the system level [2, 7]. We consider three complementary levels of coordination. At the *data* level, Collective Data Intelligence develops model capabilities by learning from diverse data sources, accumulated experience, and feedback. Many familiar learning practices can be viewed through this lens, including large-scale language and multimodal pretraining [1, 22], learning from feedback through reinforcement learning [4], and federated learning [16]. At the *computation* level, distributed training and inference coordinate work across computing resources. At the *capability* level, coordination combines complementary knowledge, skills, and functions supplied by models, agents, and tools to accomplish tasks.

Realizing these benefits requires effective coordination. At the capability level, for example, a model with a high average score may largely duplicate strengths already present in the collection, while a specialist may contribute a missing capability. A useful collective must identify and use these differences to improve outcomes or resource efficiency, accounting for coordination costs.

Trained models offer a practical starting point for capability-level coordination because they embody accumulated learning. We envision a collective that can grow to incorporate diverse models, including specialists for different domains and tasks. In this vision, the collective also uses experience and its own capabilities to improve how it is organized and coordinated. Work on continual learning under resource constraints [6] and learning from interaction [25] motivates the emphasis on adaptation and experience.

1.2 Collective Model Intelligence for Collective AI

At SinapisAI, we focus on *Collective Model Intelligence*: understanding, reusing, and coordinating capabilities across an evolving population of independently developed models to improve task outcomes and resource efficiency. This complements Collective Data Intelligence by reusing capabilities encoded in trained models, with data, evaluation, and feedback guiding coordination.

Reusing accumulated capabilities requires information about where a model is applicable and what it can contribute. The learnware paradigm addresses this need by pairing trained models with specifications that help users identify and reuse suitable capabilities [31–33].

For example, a task involving visual interpretation, reasoning, and tool use may benefit from different models at different stages. Other tasks may call for selecting among models with different

strengths and resource requirements. These possibilities depend on identifying and using model complementarity in the context of the task.

The central challenge is to infer useful model complementarity from limited evidence and determine when coordinating these capabilities yields a net gain under task and resource constraints. As models, tasks, and service conditions change, these decisions must adapt. As an initial step toward this broader vision, this report addresses three foundational questions:

1. **How can capabilities be characterized with limited evaluation?** Capability characterization must estimate model performance across domains and queries from sparse observations and identify complementary model strengths.
2. **How can models be organized for selection and collaboration?** Organization must preserve useful capability diversity, while task-dependent selection and collaboration must adapt model use to evolving needs and remaining cost and latency budgets.
3. **How can inference requests be executed efficiently under service constraints?** Scheduling must account for changing load and availability across heterogeneous endpoints, while efficient model distribution supports self-managed runtimes.

Capability evidence informs which models are retained and used, while execution conditions determine whether a choice can be carried out within the task's constraints. Evaluation and task feedback can revise this evidence and guide subsequent decisions. These connections motivate a system that links capability characterization, model organization and use, and efficient execution.

1.3 A System for Collective Model Intelligence

We address these three questions through a system that connects Model Eval for capability characterization, Mio for model organization, selection and collaboration, and Mos for shared execution. Model Space provides the shared inventory linking models, capability evidence, and execution resources (Section 2). These components form an initial foundation within the broader vision illustrated in Figure 1.

Characterizing capabilities. Model Eval uses historical evidence and limited additional evaluation to construct reusable capability profiles. It combines score estimation from limited query observations with prediction across domains, providing capability evidence for model organization and use (Section 3).

Organizing models for selection and collaboration. Mio (Models in One) is designed to organize a compact pool of complementary models for task-dependent selection and collaboration. Capability evidence guides pool construction, while task requirements and remaining cost and latency budgets guide model use. Selection assigns a suitable model to the current task, while collaboration lets complementary models contribute at different stages. Mio uses earlier results and the remaining cost and latency budgets to decide which model to call next (Section 4).

Executing inference requests efficiently. Mos (Model Serving OS) provides shared execution for capability evaluation and application calls. It schedules calls across compatible endpoints and coordinates model-file distribution for self-managed deployment, preserving the model choice made by Model Eval, Mio, or the caller (Section 5).

Section 6 reports component-level evidence of improved score estimation under limited evaluation. Across nine public benchmarks, Mio 1.0 Lite achieves the highest average score and lowest average per-request cost among the compared methods. A prewarmed shared cache also accelerates model-file retrieval.

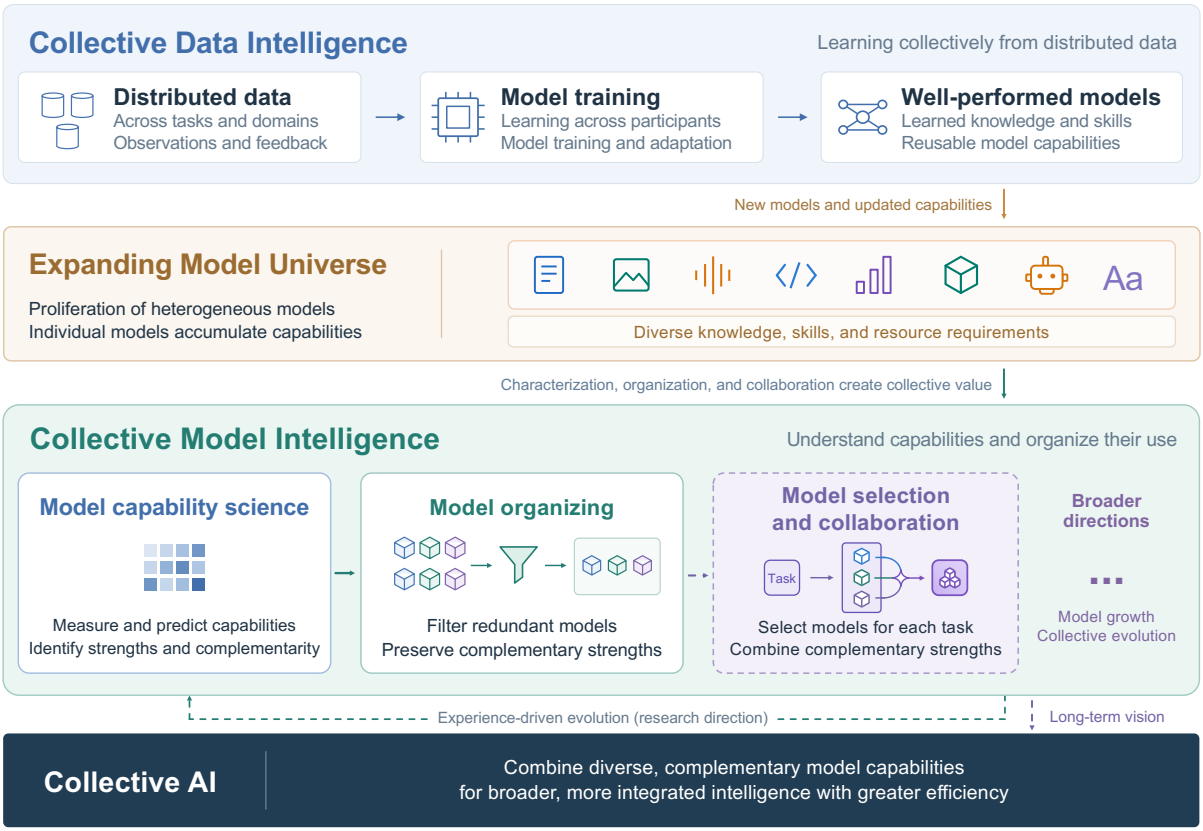


Figure 1. Individual models accumulate knowledge and skills across developers and domains. Collective Model Intelligence seeks additional value by characterizing, organizing, and coordinating these capabilities. The illustrated functions provide a foundation within a broader vision that includes growth of the model population and experience-driven collective evolution.

2 System Framework for Collective Model Intelligence

This section describes the architecture and operating contracts of our Collective Model Intelligence Framework. We first introduce its components, shared notation, and cross-component controls, then follow a model into the candidate pool and a request through execution. Later sections detail the component implementations and coordination mechanisms.

2.1 Architecture Overview

Figure 2 places the framework between AI Applications and the underlying model services. Model Eval supplies query- and domain-level capability profiles to Mio, which organizes candidates and coordinates their use. Model Space provides shared model identities and resource references; Mos uses these references to execute calls from Model Eval and Mio. Capability evidence informs model choice, while current service observations inform endpoint execution. Both kinds of records link to the same model identities, allowing evaluation and application calls to share resources.

Below the framework, Mos invokes provider-managed External Model APIs or manages the Self-Managed Model Runtime Hub. AI Cloud Infrastructure supplies servers, GPU resources, storage, and networking in public or private clouds. The Self-Managed Model Runtime Hub runs on these resources; external endpoint deployment and operation remain the provider's responsibility.

We write a managed model as (f_i, Ω_i), following the model–specification convention of Zhou [32]. Here f_i identifies a model and Ω_i is the capability profile published by Model Eval. This profile implements the model specification through scoped scores, coverage, provenance, and uncertainty

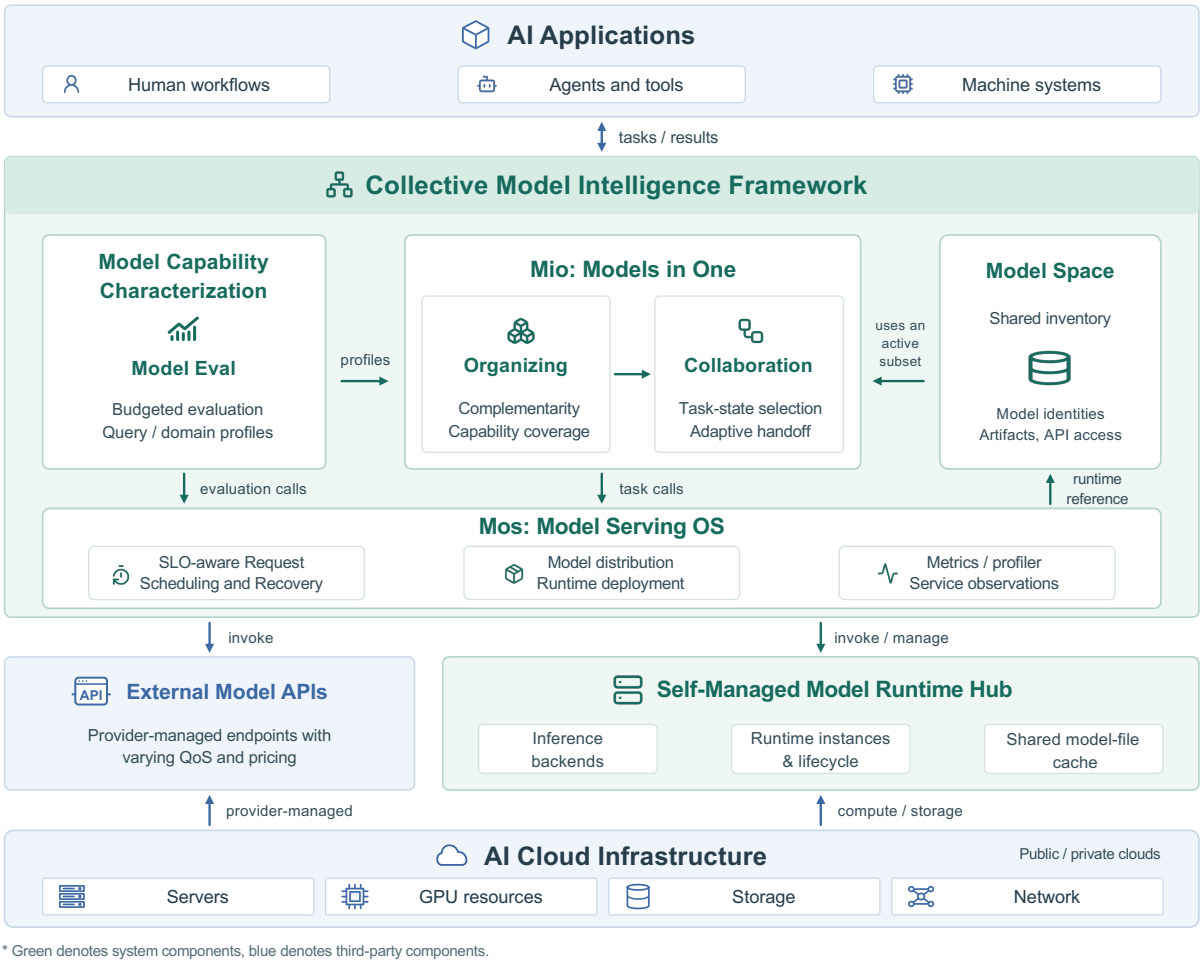


Figure 2. Collective Model Intelligence Framework architecture.

when available. It is distinct from model weights and current endpoint state. Section 3 explains how profiles are constructed.

The full inventory is $\mathcal{F} = \{f_1, \ldots, f_M\}$, and Mio publishes a candidate pool $C \subseteq \mathcal{F}$. Model f_i can have several endpoints, denoted by $\mathcal{E}(f_i)$; request-specific feasibility checks restrict the pool before selection. A system snapshot records model, profile, candidate-pool, and service versions. Formulas suppress version indices, and comparisons use the declared snapshot; changes to the inventory or scoring protocol require a new one. Live service observations complement the snapshot during request execution. For example, two compatible endpoints for the same model revision may share capability evidence but differ in price or latency. Mos chooses between them using current service conditions.

Capability profiles organize evidence in a domain–query hierarchy shared by Model Eval and Mio. A *query* is a task instance evaluated under a declared scoring protocol. An *evaluation domain* groups queries with a fixed population, score normalization, and aggregation rule. A benchmark or a declared query cluster can define a domain. Profiles retain source and query identifiers, along with the scoring protocol used.

Throughout the report, d_j denotes an evaluation domain and Q_j its declared query population. The score s_{ij} is model f_i's normalized aggregate score on that domain, and $y_i(x)$ is its score on query or request x. A hat marks an estimate or a completed score that preserves observations. Monetary cost is c and latency is ℓ. Evaluation budget B and consumption b use the study's declared unit; request execution uses cost budget C and latency allowance D.

2.2 Core System Modules

Model Eval. Model Eval implements capability characterization using historical evidence and budgeted evaluation through Mos. It publishes versioned profiles linked to model and endpoint identities, the reference snapshot, and evaluation configuration. Measured scores and predictions remain distinguishable, with coverage and provenance supporting comparisons and uncertainty recorded when available. Profiles retain query populations and scoring protocols so that Mio can compare capability evidence under compatible evaluation conditions. Characterization can be requested independently of candidate-pool admission. New evidence or model revisions trigger profile refresh under the lifecycle controls below. Section 3 develops the evaluation framework and prediction methods.

Mio: Models in One. Mio contains Organization and Collaboration. Organization uses domain coverage, query-level complementarity, and service compatibility to maintain a compact candidate pool. Pool maintenance preserves complementary successes and economical options; removing a candidate requires a retained model that meets the declared replacement-loss tolerances and service requirements. Model selection and collaboration adapt to the bounded task state, current service context, and remaining budgets as tasks progress. Mio passes the selected identity to Mos for endpoint scheduling. Section 4 develops model organization, selection and collaboration.

Model Space. Model Space maintains the full inventory of API-accessible and downloadable models, including resources outside Mio's active pool. Versioned identities link sources, interfaces, artifacts or API access configuration, deployment records, endpoints, and capability evidence. Family names group versions; additional endpoints for a known model need not create new model identities. Model Eval, Mio, and Mos link their evidence and decision records to these identities. Discovery exposes available interfaces and compatible evidence, while task suitability is assessed through characterization and selection.

Mos: Model Serving OS. Mos assigns evaluation, designated-model, and Mio-selected requests to compatible inference endpoints. Its scheduling service uses current load, price, and availability observations; its distribution and deployment service prepares downloadable models for the runtime hub; and its metrics/profiler records attempts, usage, and outcomes. External APIs and self-managed runtimes share the invocation contract, with deployment and model-file distribution applying to the self-managed path. Endpoint support records specify modalities, streaming behavior, and tool interfaces. Section 5.1 describes SLO-aware endpoint scheduling and bounded recovery; Section 5.2 develops model distribution for self-managed model deployment.

Self-Managed Model Runtime Hub. The runtime hub provides the self-managed execution path below the framework. Inference backends run model calls, instance lifecycle management controls deployment readiness and availability, and a shared model-file cache supports reuse. Mos prepares and invokes these deployments using compute and storage from AI Cloud Infrastructure.

Cross-component controls. Lifecycle management, privacy, and security apply across the components shown in Figure 2.

Lifecycle updates. Lifecycle management connects resource, evidence, and candidate versions. A new artifact revision requires readiness checks and characterization; updated profiles can trigger candidate review under Section 4.1. Endpoint outages change request eligibility, while price changes update cost context and can invalidate pool replacements justified by a cost tier. These service events do not themselves change measured capability. Earlier profiles and decision snapshots remain available for interpreting past calls, and models removed from Mio's pool retain their resources and history in Model Space.

Privacy and security. The design requires access checks before resource exposure or invocation, controlled credential references, and declared storage and transmission policies for inputs, outputs, artifacts, and logs. Credentials remain outside capability profiles. Published evaluation summaries must preserve private-task restrictions, and diagnostic traces must limit sensitive content. Downloadable models require artifact validation and runtime isolation; external services require explicit provider data-handling policies. Deployment-specific security policies cover authentication, isolation, and data retention.

2.3 Model Organizing Workflow

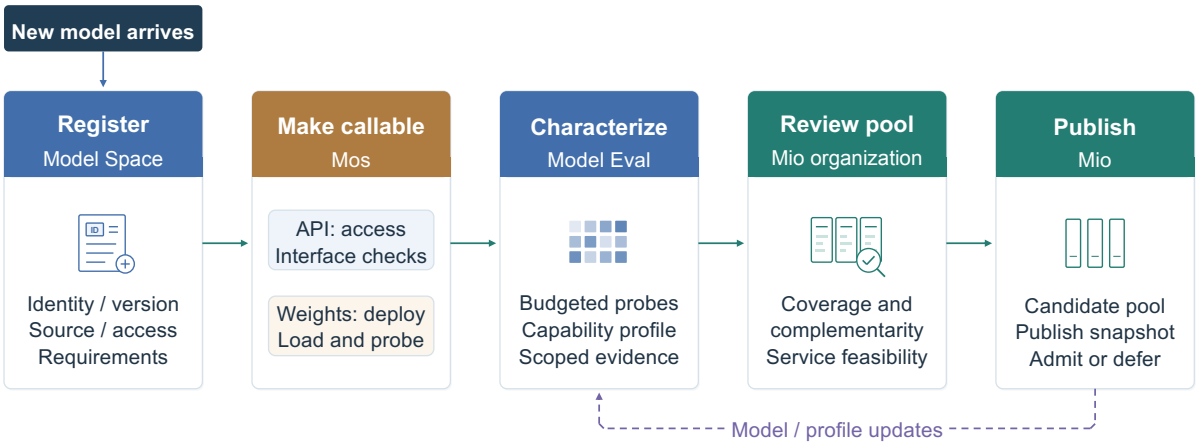


Figure 3. Model organization workflow: register in Model Space, make callable through Mos, characterize through Model Eval, and review and publish the candidate pool through Mio.

Register. The path in Figure 3 starts with a resource declaration and resolved version in Model Space. Downloadable models link source artifacts to runtime requirements; API models link provider identifiers to access configuration and constraints. Version resolution associates provider aliases with the model revision described by existing capability evidence. Identity, artifact, and interface validation determine readiness for the next stage.

Make callable. Mos prepares the appropriate execution path. Downloadable models undergo acquisition, deployment, loading, and readiness probes in the runtime hub. API models undergo access and interface checks. Access and readiness checks verify the declared interface and execution configuration before exposing the resource for evaluation or user calls. Task capability is assessed through Model Eval.

Characterize. Model Eval executes budgeted probes through Mos and scores their outcomes. It binds observations to model and execution versions and publishes a profile with measured and inferred fields separated.

Review pool. Mio checks the newcomer's coverage, complementarity, and service feasibility alongside existing candidates. It may admit the model, defer admission, or replace redundant candidates using the criteria in Section 4.1.

Publish. Mio publishes the updated pool snapshot and maintains a record of all admissions, deferrals, and replacements.

The states in Table 1 need not advance or regress together: a characterized model can become temporarily unavailable, and a callable model can remain uncharacterized. A new model revision

Table 1. Model resource states and their supporting records at a recorded snapshot.

State	Supporting record	Consequence
Registered	Identity, source, version and access configuration	Discoverable in Model Space.
Callable	Compatible endpoint and readiness evidence	Available for execution under its access policy.
Characterized	Published, scoped capability evidence	Can support comparisons or capability-based decisions.
Mio candidate	Published pool snapshot and selection support	Included in the pool used for request-level selection.

requires fresh checks and evidence; its predecessor's profile continues to describe the earlier revision. Each request is checked against current endpoint conditions and access constraints.

2.4 Model Serving Workflow

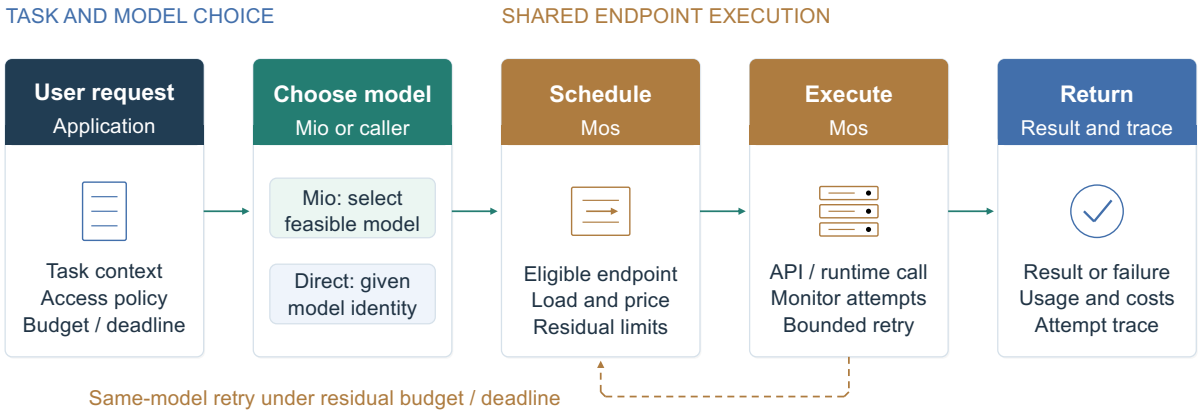


Figure 4. Model serving workflow: select a model through Mio or the caller, schedule and execute through Mos, and return results. The retry design preserves model identity and residual constraints.

User request. The path in Figure 4 begins with task context, input requirements, a monetary budget, a completion deadline, and an access policy. For a coding task, this context may include file references, error messages, and earlier test results.

Choose model. The caller supplies a designated model identity, or Mio selects one from the task state and records the candidate, capability, and policy versions consulted. Both paths use the same invocation contract; endpoint selection subsequently resolves a service for that identity.

Schedule. Mos validates required features and assigns an endpoint using current load, price, and service observations. The SLO-aware scheduling design checks feasibility against the remaining budget and deadline (Section 5.1). The handoff carries residual allowances after model selection and upstream work, preserving the request's spending limit and clock origin.

Execute. Mos invokes the selected API endpoint or runtime instance and monitors the attempt. Under the recovery policy described here, a permitted retry returns to scheduling for the same model version within the residual constraints. It may use a compatible alternative endpoint after renewed feasibility checks. Changing models returns control to Mio or the caller. Every attempt retains its elapsed time and possible charges.

Return. Mos returns the result or an explicit failure, usage, available cost information, and a trace linking the chosen model and endpoint to the attempt outcomes.

Operational feedback updates service context. Model Eval updates capability evidence using scored outcomes, provenance checks, and evidence review. In multi-step tasks, returned results and resource usage update the task state and remaining budgets before the next Mio decision (Section 4.2). Traces preserve the snapshot used for each choice.

3 Model Capability Characterization

Model capability characterization aims to describe what a model can do, where it tends to fail, and under which task conditions its capabilities are useful. It produces a reusable representation for model comparison, organization, selection and collaboration. In our framework, this process constructs and updates the *capability profile* Ω_i introduced in Section 2.1; Model Eval is the system module that collects evidence, applies the characterization methods, and publishes the profile. Evaluation collects and scores model responses; characterization combines this evidence with performance predictions into profiles for model organization, selection and collaboration. The profile serves the role of a model specification in the learnware paradigm.

Such a specification can take several forms. Semantic descriptions can record intended tasks, modalities, and application contexts. Statistical specifications can summarize properties of the data associated with a model, as in reduced kernel mean embedding specifications [26, 33]. Evaluation-based representations record model behavior on declared tasks. Together, these forms describe task identity, distributional compatibility, and demonstrated performance.

This section focuses on large language models (LLMs) and their multimodal extensions, whose capabilities span diverse tasks and can vary substantially across queries within the same task. For such models, a broad semantic label provides limited resolution for comparing strengths and failures, while hosted access may provide neither training data nor internal parameters. Evaluation through a model's callable interface supplies behavioral evidence under specified task and scoring conditions [13]. We therefore construct evaluation-based capability profiles using the domain–query hierarchy defined in Section 2.1. Each profile combines domain scores with query-level outcomes, uncertainty, and coverage. Domain scores describe broad performance; query-level evidence reveals complementary successes hidden by aggregate rankings.

For example, two models may have similar coding scores yet excel on different queries, such as code generation versus debugging. Query-level prediction estimates unqueried outcomes from a few scored queries in selected *anchor domains*, yielding aggregate *anchor scores*. Cross-domain prediction uses these scores and historical model-domain relationships to estimate performance in untested domains, such as data analysis.

Constructing these profiles creates an evaluation challenge. Testing every model on every query requires substantial inference and scoring resources [15], and historical evaluations cover models and tasks unevenly. The objective is to characterize model f_* across evaluation domains using historical evidence and limited additional query evaluations. Our approach combines two prediction stages: query-level predictions estimate scores on selected anchor domains, and relationships across models and domains reconstruct the remaining scores. A multi-round procedure allocates further evaluation between broadening domain coverage and refining anchor-score estimates, building the profile Ω_* used by Mio. Model Eval publishes the profile with observations, predictions, uncertainty, and provenance distinguished; renewed evaluation updates this evidence as models and tasks change. Characterization covers the declared model inventory and can be used independently of Mio's candidate-pool admission and request-selection decisions.

The domain–query hierarchy and score notation follow the shared evaluation organization in Section 2.1. Let $\mathcal{D} = \{d_1, \ldots, d_J\}$ be the fixed inventory of J domains. The domain and query scores are organized into the partially observed model-domain matrix $S = (s_{ij}) \in [0,1]^{M \times J}$ and the per-domain model–query matrices $Y_j = (y_i(x))_{i, x \in Q_j}$. Historical observations are indexed by O_d for model-domain pairs (i, j) and O_q for model–query pairs (i, x) used to fit the query-response model. Different models may answer different query subsets. Observation masks distinguish measured scores from unmeasured entries and record each domain's query coverage.

The model-domain matrix S is highly sparse because each historical model has measured scores on only a small subset of domains. Among models with historical evaluations in domain d_j, the corresponding rows of Y_j are comparatively less sparse: evaluations record outcomes for many queries in Q_j. Query coverage can still be incomplete and uneven across models. This difference motivates prediction within domains followed by reconstruction across domains.

Within an evaluation budget, the objective is to estimate $\mathbf{s}_* = (s_{*1}, \ldots, s_{*J})$ together with uncertainty and coverage. The model and domain inventories, query populations, scoring rules, and historical fitting evidence remain fixed during a run; only the available evaluation evidence for f_* grows. Scores from incompatible populations or protocols measure different quantities.

3.1 Multi-Round Hierarchical Evaluation Framework

The framework in Figure 5 alternates between collecting query evidence and updating Ω_*. Each round selects queries from the domain-query hierarchy, executes and scores them, estimates anchor scores, and predicts the full domain-score vector. The remaining budget can broaden domain coverage or evaluate more queries in an existing anchor domain to improve precision. Historical components of both estimators are fitted before profiling f_*.

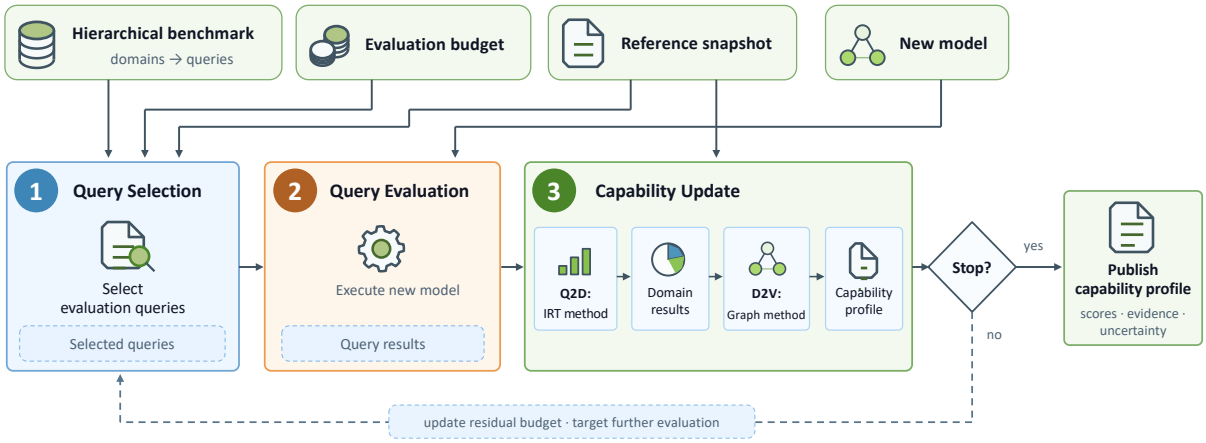


Figure 5. Budgeted capability characterization by Model Eval. Mos query results and a fixed reference snapshot guide profile updates and further queries. Profiles retain evidence and uncertainty.

Evidence and the two prediction stages. At round k, $\mathcal{H}_k$ contains the accumulated query–score pairs $(x, y_*(x))$ for f_*. It starts from any permitted, compatible scores in $\mathcal{H}_0$ and grows as new queries are scored. Newly acquired scores for f_* do not enter the historical fitting set O_q. $\mathcal{J}_k$ indexes the selected anchor domains, and B_k is the remaining part of the total evaluation budget B. This budget uses the study's declared unit, such as query count. At the framework level, let $\mathcal{Z}_k = \{(j, \bar{s}_{*j}, u_j) : j \in \mathcal{J}_k\}$ denote the anchor-domain identities, score estimates, and uncertainty. For example, new coding-query results can refine a coding-domain estimate, which then informs predictions for related domains. Estimates below are conditioned on the current round's evidence; round superscripts are shown when comparing rounds.

The two stages have the following general form:

$$\begin{aligned} \mathcal{H}_k &\xrightarrow{\text{within-domain estimation}} \mathcal{Z}_k, \\ (S, O_d, \mathcal{Z}_k) &\xrightarrow{\text{cross-domain reconstruction}} (\widehat{\mathbf{s}}_*, \boldsymbol{\sigma}_*). \end{aligned} \tag{1}$$

Under the fixed evaluation inventory and system snapshot, the within-domain estimator maps accumulated query evidence to noisy scores for selected anchor domains. The cross-domain reconstructor combines these scores with historical model-domain evidence to estimate the full domain vector. Here u_j denotes the calibrated standard deviation of an anchor-score estimate, while σ_{*j} denotes calibrated prediction error for a completed score. The estimators evaluated in this report produce point scores; calibrated error estimates are an additional input to the risk-based allocation interface. The graph-based and query-response methods are specified in Sections 3.2 and 3.3.

Budget allocation across the hierarchy. An action $a = (j, \mathcal{U})$ evaluates a nonempty set of unscored queries $\mathcal{U} \subseteq Q_j$. Let $b_j(x) > 0$ be the budget charged for obtaining and scoring a response from f_* to query x, measured in the same declared unit as B. When query costs are additive, the action cost is $b(a) = \sum_{x \in \mathcal{U}} b_j(x)$; the action is affordable when $b(a) \le B_k$. Under a query-count budget, each query costs one unit, so $b(a) = |\mathcal{U}|$. Any batch-level charge is included in the total action cost and must also be known at selection time. A new anchor domain starts with a representative query set sufficient to estimate its score; an existing anchor domain receives further query evaluations. Prescribed anchor domains and coverage constrain the available actions. Without initial observations of f_*, the first round prioritizes the declared domain coverage.

Let $w_j \ge 0$, with $\sum_j w_j = 1$, be domain weights fixed before evaluation to reflect relative domain importance. When applicable calibrated errors and action-conditioned future-risk estimates are available, the whole-profile risk and expected reduction following action a are

$$R_k = \sum_{j=1}^{J} w_j \big(\sigma_{*j}^{(k)}\big)^2, \qquad \Delta_k(a) = R_k - \mathbb{E}[R_{k+1} \mid \mathcal{H}_k, a]. \tag{2}$$

Here $\sigma_{*j}^{(k)}$ is the calibrated prediction error at round k. The estimate of $\Delta_k(a)$ averages over possible query outcomes predicted from current evidence, updating both stages for each outcome. Among affordable, protocol-compatible actions $\mathcal{A}_k$, choose

$$a_k \in \arg\max_{a \in \mathcal{A}_k} \Delta_k(a)/b(a). \tag{3}$$

Only actual scored responses are appended to $\mathcal{H}_k$; predicted outcomes used to choose an action do not become observations. Deduct $b(a_k)$ from B_k, rerun both stages on the accumulated evidence, and continue with the updated profile. Expected outcomes may be approximated by predictive sampling. The allocation uses calibrated error estimates, and its computation counts toward total cost. With point-score estimates, use a predeclared policy such as stratified random sampling.

Stopping, publication, and updates. Stop when no affordable action remains. When the calibrated risk rule is available, also stop if a declared risk tolerance is met or the best expected gain falls below a preset threshold. Model Eval publishes a capability profile Ω_* that retains query observations, anchor-score estimates, the completed domain-score vector, uncertainty, coverage, selection trace, and model, endpoint, task, scorer, and method versions.

Mio's organizing functions use domain scores for coverage checks and query scores to distinguish complementary successful cases in Section 4.1. These screening rules use complete measurements or calibrated capability intervals. A profile refresh can change candidate membership. Changing the model or evaluation inventory starts a new snapshot.

Historical collection, fitting, and calibration are preparation costs. Per-model evaluation costs cover query selection, model calls, scoring, and both prediction stages. Section 6.2 reports query-level benchmark-score estimation from limited query observations and cross-domain prediction from a small set of measured domain scores, using hidden outcomes for verification. These studies assess within-domain estimation and cross-domain reconstruction separately.

3.2 Predicting Performance Across Domains

The cross-domain stage combines supplied anchor scores with the sparse historical model-domain matrix to predict f_*'s full domain-score vector. Observed entries form a bipartite graph G of models and domains, with no same-type edges. For each domain, compatible observed scores determine a mean μ_j and stabilized standard deviation $\nu_j > 0$. Edge scores are standardized as $z_{ij} = (s_{ij} - \mu_j)/\nu_j$; these statistics remain fixed throughout characterization.

Score-graph prediction. Each node starts with a trainable state $\mathbf{g}_v^{(0)} \in \mathbb{R}^{d_g}$. With $\mathcal{N}(v)$ denoting its active neighbors, each layer updates

$$\mathbf{g}_v^{(l+1)} = \mathrm{Update}_l\Big(\mathbf{g}_v^{(l)},\ \mathrm{mean}_{u\in\mathcal{N}(v)}[\mathbf{g}_u^{(l)};\ z_{vu}\mathbf{g}_u^{(l)};\ z_{vu}]\Big). \tag{4}$$

Semicolons denote concatenation, z_{vu} is the active edge score, and empty-neighborhood means are zero. The update concatenates the node state with the unweighted neighbor mean, score-weighted neighbor mean, and mean edge score, then applies an affine map, GELU, dropout, a residual connection, and layer normalization. Bidirectional propagation exchanges information between models and domains. From the final states $\mathbf{g}_v$, a matrix W and scalar node biases β_v decode unmeasured scores:

$$\widehat{z}_{ij} = (W\mathbf{g}_{f_i})^\top \mathbf{g}_{d_j}/\sqrt{d_g} + \beta_{f_i} + \beta_{d_j}, \qquad \widehat{s}_{ij} = \mathrm{clip}_{[0,1]}\big(\mu_j + \nu_j\widehat{z}_{ij}\big). \tag{5}$$

Here $\mathrm{clip}_{[0,1]}(t) = \min\{1, \max\{0, t\}\}$ bounds decoder predictions after inverse normalization; observed scores and supplied anchor scores remain unchanged. Historical fitting minimizes a Huber reconstruction loss on temporarily masked observed edges, removed before message passing. Missing entries are never training labels.

Conditioning on anchor scores. At round k, add temporary anchor edges E_k between f_* and selected domains absent from the historical observation set:

$$G_k = G \cup E_k, \qquad E_k = \{(f_*, d_j) : j \in \mathcal{J}_k,\ (*, j) \notin O_d\}. \tag{6}$$

Each temporary edge has weight $\bar{z}_{*j} = (\bar{s}_{*j} - \mu_j)/\nu_j$. With fitted parameters frozen, message passing on G_k recomputes node states and predictions. Later rounds replace these weights with updated anchor-score estimates; they do not enter O_d or become training labels.

Compatible direct measurements take precedence in $\widehat{\mathbf{s}}_*$. Other anchor-domain entries retain $\bar{s}_{*j}$, and the decoder fills remaining entries with usable graph support. Query responses enter through anchor scores, without duplicate query edges.

Absolute performance and relative specialization answer different questions. Removing the decoder's model–domain interaction gives the reference score $s_{ij}^0 = \mathrm{clip}_{[0,1]}\Big(\mu_j + \nu_j(\beta_{f_i} + \beta_{d_j})\Big)$, using the same clipping rule. The specialization deviation is

$$\delta_{ij} = \widehat{s}_{ij} - s_{ij}^0. \tag{7}$$

We identify relative strengths and weaknesses through practically meaningful deviations supported by uncertainty in both the score and its reference. Relative specialization and absolute competence use distinct references; domain assessments rely on representative query coverage.

Extending the graph. A new model needs an initialized state, bias, and compatible anchor scores; a new domain also needs a declared scoring protocol, normalization, and historical support. Shared parameters may be reused, but new node parameters require fitting or validated initialization. New nodes can alter existing states, requiring new graph and calibration versions.

3.3 Query-Level Performance Prediction

The within-domain estimation stage in Section 3.1 uses historically fitted response functions and observations of f_* in $\mathcal{H}_k$. It predicts unscored query outcomes and estimates full-domain scores $\bar{s}_{*j}$ for $j \in \mathcal{J}_k$. The current cross-domain reconstructor in Section 3.2 conditions on the anchor-score estimates obtained in this stage.

Learning from historical responses. Let $\boldsymbol{\theta}_i \in \mathbb{R}^{d_q}$ represent model f_i's latent ability, g_x a query-specific response function shared across models, and p_x the likelihood appropriate to that query's score type. Then

$$y_i(x) \mid \boldsymbol{\theta}_i, g_x \sim p_x(\cdot \mid g_x(\boldsymbol{\theta}_i)) . \tag{8}$$

Our evaluated estimator uses a conjunctive response function:

$$g_x(\boldsymbol{\theta}) = \prod\nolimits_{h:Q_{xh}=1} \sigma(a_{xh}\theta_h - \beta_{xh}), \qquad a_{xh} > 0, \tag{9}$$

where σ is the logistic function, $Q_{xh} \in \{0, 1\}$ indicates whether query x involves latent dimension h, and a_{xh} and β_{xh} are discrimination and bias parameters. A model's ability vector links its query responses, allowing observations to inform predictions for unscored queries.

Section 6.2 compares within-domain estimators using limited-query benchmark-score estimation. Its separate cross-domain experiment supplies measured domain scores as exact anchor scores and bypasses query-response estimation. Learned ability coordinates summarize response patterns, not named semantic capabilities. The domain graph has its own representation and loss.

Query prediction and domain aggregation. The evaluated estimator obtains $\boldsymbol{\theta}_*$ by applying the trained encoder to features constructed from $\mathcal{H}_k$ and the permitted historical responses, while keeping the query-specific response functions g_x in Equation (9) fixed. The completed score $\widehat{y}_*(x)$ preserves an observed score when available and otherwise uses its predictive mean. The same rule applies to another model using its own recorded evidence. Observed and predicted entries remain marked in the profile.

For a domain with weighted-mean aggregation, the anchor-score estimate is

$$\bar{s}_{*j} = \sum\nolimits_{x \in Q_j} v_j(x)\widehat{y}_*(x), \qquad j \in \mathcal{J}_k. \tag{10}$$

The query weights satisfy $v_j(x) \geq 0$ and $\sum_{x \in Q_j} v_j(x) = 1$ within each domain. They are distinct from the across-domain weights w_j in Section 3.1. The estimated score represents the full declared population, not the mean of selected queries. For a non-mean rule, apply the declared aggregation to joint predictive outcomes and take the conditional mean of the aggregate; plugging means into a nonlinear metric is generally different.

Each anchor domain retains its query weights, coverage, selection design, and scoring protocol. Observation coverage counts distinct scored queries in the declared population. These anchor-score estimates feed cross-domain reconstruction in Section 3.2. As new query scores expand $\mathcal{H}_k$, the within-domain estimator refreshes the anchor scores and cross-domain reconstruction updates the profile used by the next round of Section 3.1.

Additional evidence and new populations. A fixed-observation study predicts from a supplied mask. An active study can acquire more scores within the same matrices, changing the observation set rather than the populations. Improvements due to extra calls must be distinguished from improvements in the completion method. Uniform, domain-concentrated, and outcome-dependent missingness are separate conditions. The query-level method balances learned response-group coverage and information about $\boldsymbol{\theta}_*$; those groups need not coincide with semantic domains.

Within an existing query bank, a new model can fit its latent ability from new scores while reusing response functions, subject to new-model validation. A new query needs evidence to fit a response function or a validated content-conditioned extension. A new domain also needs its population, aggregation, and calibration before providing anchor scores.

Current implementation of the two stages. The within-domain stage uses a historically fitted query-response model to infer $\boldsymbol{\theta}_*$ from $\mathcal{H}_k$ and aggregates predicted and observed query outcomes under each anchor domain's declared scoring rule. The cross-domain stage uses graph completion over the fixed historical model-domain evidence, conditioned on the supplied anchor scores. In the current implementations described in Sections 3.2 and 3.3, this framework-level flow takes the following form:

$$\begin{aligned} \mathcal{Z}_k &= \text{Aggregate}_{\mathcal{J}_k}\Big(\text{Predict}_{O_q}(\mathcal{H}_k)\Big), \\ \widehat{\mathbf{s}}_* &= \text{GraphComplete}(S, O_d, \mathcal{Z}_k). \end{aligned} \tag{11}$$

Query prediction and domain aggregation produce anchor scores, and graph completion returns the full domain-score vector.

4 Mio: Organizing Models for Selection and Collaboration

Mio (Models in One) addresses model organization, selection and collaboration within our system. It aims to turn complementary capabilities into better task quality and more efficient resource use by maintaining a compact candidate pool and coordinating its members under evolving task requirements and budgets. Capability profiles from Section 3 guide which models to retain and how to match them to the current task.

Capability evidence alone does not determine these decisions. Keeping only the highest average performers can discard complementary specialists and economical options, while comparing every available model increases selection overhead. A useful candidate pool must preserve these contributions, and request-level selection must match them to the current task state, access requirements, and resource constraints. As a task progresses, both its needs and its remaining budget can change, calling for a new choice.

Mio addresses these requirements in two stages, summarized in Figure 6. Section 4.1 constructs and maintains a compact candidate pool $C \subseteq \mathcal{F}$ using domain coverage, query-level complementarity, and service compatibility. Section 4.2 develops model selection and collaboration under the remaining cost and latency budgets, adapting model use and handoff as task needs evolve. Model Space retains the full inventory, and Mos executes the selected model. The reported experiments assess quality–cost trade-offs and request-level robustness (Section 6).

4.1 Capability-Guided Model Organizing

Organizing models aims to maintain a compact candidate pool while preserving complementary strengths. Consider two models evaluated on the same ten equally weighted queries in a domain: model A answers nine correctly, while model B answers eight, including the one that A misses.

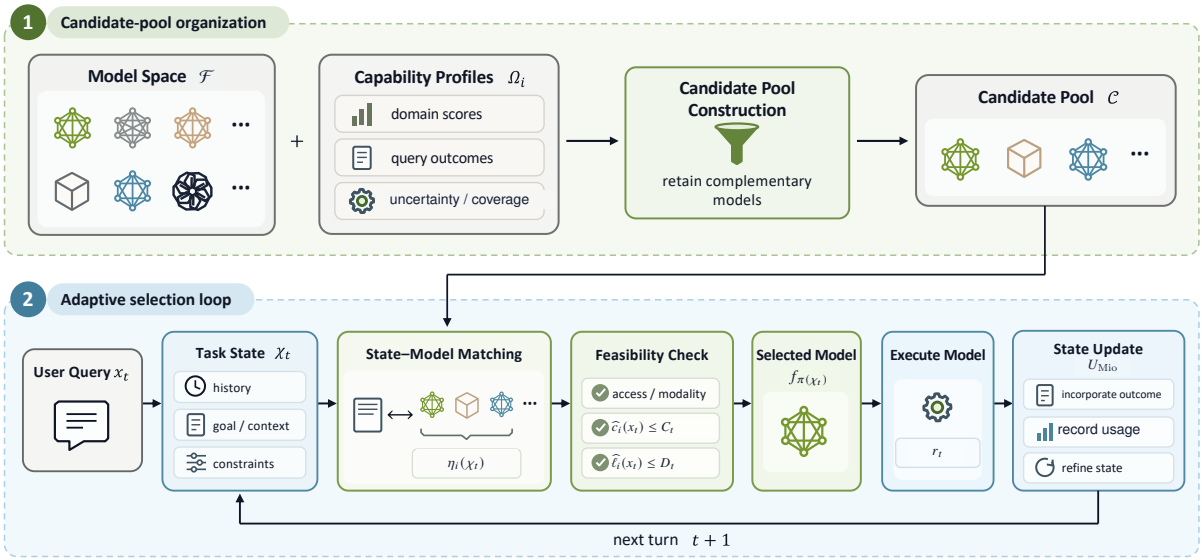


Figure 6. Model organization, selection and collaboration in Mio. Model Eval profiles and Model Space inform a complementary candidate pool; each decision selects a feasible model for Mos execution and updates task context and resource budgets. Capability-profile refresh follows separate scoring and evidence review by Model Eval.

Keeping only A would discard a useful contribution from B, even though A has the higher average score across the ten queries.

This example motivates a simple principle: remove a model only when the available evidence indicates that a retained alternative can adequately take over its useful role. These decisions are revisited as models, capability evidence, or service conditions change.

Mio adapts the coverage-based learnware filtering idea [12] to formalize this replacement principle. Capability profiles and evaluation evidence from Section 3 support coverage and replacement-loss checks, while current service information supports compatibility checks.

Supported and possible domains. Under a fixed domain scope $\mathcal{D}$ and evidence snapshot, we represent each model–domain entry by a screening interval $[s_{ij}^{\text{lo}}, s_{ij}^{\text{hi}}]$. For profile predictions $\widehat{s}_{ij} \in [0,1]$ with applicable calibration, define

$$s_{ij}^{\text{lo}} = \max\{0, \widehat{s}_{ij} - \kappa\sigma_{ij}\}, \qquad s_{ij}^{\text{hi}} = \min\{1, \widehat{s}_{ij} + \kappa\sigma_{ij}\}. \tag{12}$$

The shared multiplier $\kappa \ge 0$ controls the interval width. It can be calibrated on held-out data, for example using a high quantile of standardized absolute prediction errors. For complete, compatible measurements, the interval reduces to $[s_{ij}, s_{ij}]$, representing the recorded score on a fixed query population. With neither complete measurements nor applicable calibrated estimates, use $[0,1]$. For competence thresholds $\tau_j \in (0,1]$, define

$$\mathcal{S}_i = \{d_j \in \mathcal{D} : s_{ij}^{\text{lo}} \ge \tau_j\}, \qquad \mathcal{P}_i = \{d_j \in \mathcal{D} : s_{ij}^{\text{hi}} \ge \tau_j\}. \tag{13}$$

The set $\mathcal{S}_i$ contains domains supported by current evidence; $\mathcal{P}_i$ also includes those where competence remains possible, so $\mathcal{S}_i \subseteq \mathcal{P}_i$. Missing evidence keeps a domain in $\mathcal{P}_i$ but not $\mathcal{S}_i$; an upper bound below τ_j excludes it from both. Filtering operates on the qualified inventory $\mathcal{F}_q = \{f_i \in \mathcal{F} : \mathcal{S}_i \neq \varnothing\}$, whose models have at least one supported domain.

Directional replacement loss. To protect complementary successes, we assess the loss when f_m replaces f_i using the completed query scores $\widehat{y}_i(x)$ from Section 3.3. For a domain with

weighted-mean scoring and applicable paired-loss calibration, define the estimated loss $\widehat{L}_j(i,m)$ and the loss $L_j(i,m)$ used for filtering:

$$\widehat{L}_j(i,m) = \sum\nolimits_{x\in Q_j} v_j(x)[\widehat{y}_i(x) - \widehat{y}_m(x)]_+, \qquad L_j(i,m) = \widehat{L}_j(i,m) + \epsilon_{imj}. \tag{14}$$

Here $[z]_+ = \max\{z, 0\}$. The query weights $v_j(x)$ follow the domain aggregation in Section 3.3. Gains on other queries do not cancel losses. The margin $\epsilon_{imj} \geq 0$ compensates for possible underestimation. For complete, compatible paired measurements, use the observed scores $y_i(x), y_m(x)$ and set $\epsilon_{imj} = 0$. The screening value then reduces to the recorded loss over the fixed query population:

$$L_j(i,m) = \sum\nolimits_{x\in Q_j} v_j(x)[y_i(x) - y_m(x)]_+. \tag{15}$$

For binary scores, this is the weighted proportion of queries where f_i succeeds and f_m fails. With neither complete paired measurements nor applicable calibrated estimates, use $L_j = +\infty$ to block replacement. The margin ϵ_{imj} can be calibrated on held-out model pairs by comparing estimated losses with losses from complete paired observations. A high quantile of the underestimation errors is one possible choice. Calibration data must match the evaluation conditions and remain separate from predictor fitting and final testing.

Combining these checks with service compatibility, we define replacement of f_i by f_m for distinct $f_i, f_m \in \mathcal{F}_q$ under the same service snapshot:

$$\text{Replace}(i,m) = 1 \iff \begin{cases} \mathcal{P}_i \subseteq \mathcal{S}_m, \quad \text{Compat}(i,m) = 1, \\ L_j(i,m) \leq \epsilon_j, \quad \forall d_j \in \mathcal{P}_i. \end{cases} \tag{16}$$

Here $\epsilon_j \geq 0$ is a finite, predeclared loss tolerance. $\text{Compat}(i,m) = 1$ indicates that f_m is verified to meet f_i's interface, modality, access, cost, and latency requirements under the declared workload. Replacement is directional and need not be transitive.

Candidate retrieval and pool maintenance. To reduce comparison costs and keep the candidate pool up to date, Mio combines coverage-based candidate retrieval with filtering triggered by model, profile, or service changes. We maintain a domain-to-model inverted index for coverage-based candidate retrieval: $\mathcal{I}_j(C) = \{f_m \in C : d_j \in \mathcal{S}_m\}$. For a pool $C \subseteq \mathcal{F}_q$ and a newly qualified model $f_{\text{new}} \in \mathcal{F}_q \setminus C$, index intersection yields candidates to replace the newcomer:

$$\bigcap\nolimits_{d_j\in\mathcal{P}_{\text{new}}} \mathcal{I}_j(C). \tag{17}$$

Conversely, candidates that the newcomer may replace are $\{f_i \in C : \mathcal{P}_i \subseteq \mathcal{S}_{\text{new}}\}$. Both sets are obtained using only the domain coverage condition. Each candidate pair must also pass the query-level loss and service compatibility checks in the corresponding direction: $\text{Replace}(\text{new}, m) = 1$ for an existing model f_m to replace the newcomer, or $\text{Replace}(i, \text{new}) = 1$ for the newcomer to replace an existing model f_i.

The pool-maintenance procedure uses this index to rerun filtering whenever models arrive or profiles, domain scope, or service conditions change. Initialize $C = \mathcal{F}_q$ from the updated qualified inventory, including previously excluded models, reset replacement records, and build the index. Process models in fixed identifier order. Before removing f_i, use index intersection to find a direct replacement in $C \setminus \{f_i\}$ for it and each excluded model assigned to it. Commit removal and update records and the index together only if all affected models pass replacement checks, preserving

$$\forall f_i \in \mathcal{F}_q \setminus C, \quad \exists f_m \in C : \text{Replace}(i,m) = 1. \tag{18}$$

Mio publishes the resulting pool and direct replacement records for model selection, while Model Space retains all resources.

4.2 Model Selection and Collaboration

Mio selects a suitable model from the organized pool C for the current task state, subject to cost, latency, access, modality, and execution-path constraints.

Budgeted routing objective. Consider a trajectory of T sequential model calls. At step t, the policy observes the bounded task state χ_t, which includes the current request x_t, then selects $f_{\pi(\chi_t)}$ from the candidate pool. Task-level utility may depend on the complete execution trajectory, such as whether a coding task ends with a correct patch. For budgeted routing, we use cumulative per-step quality as a tractable surrogate:

$$\begin{aligned} \pi^\star \in \arg\max_\pi \quad & \mathbb{E}_\pi\Big[\sum\nolimits_{t=1}^{T} y_{\pi(\chi_t)}(x_t)\Big] \\ \text{s.t.} \quad & f_{\pi(\chi_t)} \in C \subseteq \mathcal{F}, \qquad \gamma_{\pi(\chi_t)}(\chi_t) = 1, \quad t = 1, \dots, T, \\ & \sum\nolimits_{t=1}^{T} c_{\pi(\chi_t)}(x_t) \le C_0, \qquad \sum\nolimits_{t=1}^{T} \ell_{\pi(\chi_t)}(x_t) \le D_0. \end{aligned} \tag{19}$$

Here $\gamma_i(\chi_t) \in \{0, 1\}$ indicates whether f_i passes the current access, modality, interface, context-capacity, and execution-path checks. The realized step-level quality score $y_i(x_t)$ is unavailable when the decision is made; Mio must predict the corresponding ordering from training evidence. The resource terms $c_i(x_t)$ and $\ell_i(x_t)$ denote the total execution charge and elapsed time for f_i under the current service policy. Here C_0 and D_0 are the initial trajectory budgets; C_t and D_t are the remaining budgets available before decision t, with $C_1 = C_0$ and $D_1 = D_0$. Equation (19) specifies an idealized constrained objective under realized resource consumption. The per-decision rule in Equation (25) uses predicted consumption to approximate it. The additive latency budget assumes sequential calls; concurrent workflows would require a wall-clock accounting model. Varying the initial budgets yields different quality–resource operating points. A task-level extension can instead optimize an application-defined trajectory utility under the same resource constraints.

This formulation exposes three coupled requirements. Performance is request-dependent, so complementary specialists may outrank a stronger average model. Cost, latency, and service compatibility determine which actions are admissible. In a multi-step workflow, an executed result changes both the information available to the next decision and the remaining resources. For example, a coding agent may make successive model calls to diagnose a bug, generate a patch, and revise it after running tests. Earlier outputs and test feedback inform later requests, while incurred cost and elapsed time reduce the budgets available for each new model choice. A single-request task is the special case $T = 1$. Rather than solve the full trajectory online, Mio uses a receding decision loop: construct a bounded task state, identify feasible candidates, score and select among them, execute one model, and update the state.

Task-state construction. The latest request alone may omit information needed for routing, whereas an unbounded transcript introduces irrelevant detail and growing decision cost. Mio therefore constructs the bounded task state

$$\chi_t = (o_t, x_t, \psi_t, \rho_t), \tag{20}$$

where o_t is the persistent objective, ψ_t is a compact execution context, and ρ_t contains current runtime requirements and observations. The context retains application-visible conclusions, evidence, intermediate artifacts, and unresolved requirements. The runtime component records modalities, context demand, access constraints, prior usage, residual budgets C_t, D_t, and the service information needed to interpret them. A task-state processor initializes ψ_1 from the available context and updates it after each execution. Throughout this section, $\pi(\chi_t)$ returns a model index and $C(\chi_t)$ denotes the feasible model set at the full task state. Scores and resource

terms also condition on the supplied context and service snapshot; these fixed arguments are suppressed in $y_i(x_t)$, $c_i(x_t)$, and $\ell_i(x_t)$.

Shared state–model selector. A shared state encoder and model-profile encoder, followed by projections into a common space, represent the task and each candidate:

$$\mathbf{h}_t = W_\chi E_\chi(\chi_t), \qquad \mathbf{m}_i = W_\Omega E_\Omega(\Omega_i, \mathbf{e}_i), \tag{21}$$

where W_χ, W_Ω are projection maps and $\mathbf{e}_i$ is an optional learned embedding for residual properties of a model in a fixed pool. The profile input uses scoped capability evidence published by Model Eval; live endpoint state enters through ρ_t and the feasibility check.

The shared head scores each feasible candidate:

$$\eta_i(\chi_t) = \mathrm{Head}[\mathbf{h}_t; \mathbf{m}_i; \mathbf{h}_t \odot \mathbf{m}_i; |\mathbf{h}_t - \mathbf{m}_i|]\,. \tag{22}$$

Concatenation exposes the two representations; elementwise products and absolute differences expose agreement and mismatch. The encoders and head apply a shared scoring function across candidates. The pairwise objective below trains $\eta_i(\chi_t)$ to reflect quality ordering for the current state rather than global model strength.

Comparative selection learning. Informed by comparative model-conditioned ranking in EquiRouter [8], Mio learns state-conditioned quality orderings from observed model outcomes. Training trajectories supply states, and multiple candidates are executed from the same state to obtain observed quality scores $y_i(x_t)$. Sampled outcomes can be noisy [9], so pairs are admitted only when their observed quality difference exceeds a reliability margin $\epsilon_y \geq 0$. Define the quality-ordered pairs as $\mathcal{B}_y(\chi_t) = \{(i,m) : y_i(x_t) > y_m(x_t) + \epsilon_y\}$. Mio minimizes

$$\mathcal{L}_{\mathrm{rank}}(\chi_t) = \big(\max\{1, |\mathcal{B}_y(\chi_t)|\}\big)^{-1} \sum_{(i,m)\in\mathcal{B}_y(\chi_t)} \log(1 + \exp[-(\eta_i(\chi_t) - \eta_m(\chi_t))])\,, \tag{23}$$

with an empty pair set contributing zero. The loss learns the ordering needed at deployment without forcing heterogeneous task metrics onto one absolute scale. For large pools, training pairs can be constructed from sampled candidate subsets. The reliability margin is fixed in advance or selected on development data.

Constraint-aware selection. For resource comparisons, define the development-normalized value of $u \in \{c, \ell\}$ by $\widetilde{u}_i(x_t) = (u_i(x_t) - u^{\mathrm{dev}}_{\min})/(u^{\mathrm{dev}}_{\max} - u^{\mathrm{dev}}_{\min})$, using statistics fixed on the development split (and zero when the range is degenerate). The corresponding resource score is

$$\zeta_i(x_t) = \lambda_c \widetilde{c}_i(x_t) + \lambda_\ell \widetilde{\ell}_i(x_t), \qquad \lambda_c, \lambda_\ell \geq 0, \quad \lambda_c + \lambda_\ell = 1. \tag{24}$$

The weights are fixed in advance or selected on development data.

Mio screens candidates for the constraints in Equation (19) using $\gamma_i(\chi_t)$, the residual budgets C_t, D_t, and the cost and latency predicted under the Mos scheduler's current endpoint policy. It first forms a per-decision feasible set and, when that set is nonempty, applies the two-stage rule:

$$\begin{aligned} C(\chi_t) &= \{f_i \in C : \gamma_i(\chi_t) = 1,\ \widehat{c}_i(x_t) \leq C_t,\ \widehat{\ell}_i(x_t) \leq D_t\}, \\ \eta_t^{\max} &= \max_{f_i \in C(\chi_t)} \eta_i(\chi_t), \\ \mathcal{N}_t &= \{f_i \in C(\chi_t) : \eta_i(\chi_t) \geq \eta_t^{\max} - \epsilon_\eta\}, \\ \pi(\chi_t) &\in \arg\min_{i:\, f_i \in \mathcal{N}_t} \widehat{\zeta}_i(x_t). \end{aligned} \tag{25}$$

Here $\mathcal{N}_t$ is the feasible near-tie set, and ϵ_η is calibrated on development data and fixed before test. The predicted resource score $\widehat{\zeta}_i(x_t)$ applies Equation (24) to $\widehat{c}_i(x_t)$ and $\widehat{\ell}_i(x_t)$ using the same fixed

development normalization and weights. Selection is therefore explicitly two-stage: predicted quality determines the near-tie set, and resource use orders models only inside that set. Predicted cost and latency also impose hard admissibility before either stage. Changing C_t, D_t, access, or service conditions changes $C(\chi_t)$ without retraining the selector. This receding rule provides a tractable per-decision approximation to Equation (19).

The estimates include routing overhead and the configured generation allowance. The execution contract requires Mos to recheck endpoint-level feasibility and enforce available usage caps. A model change triggers a new Mio decision under the remaining budgets. If $C(\chi_t)$ is empty, Mio reports the unmet constraints.

Multi-step inference and model handoff. After selection, Mio passes the selected identity and residual budgets to the Mos scheduler in Section 5.1. The chosen model produces a result, and the feedback path in Figure 6 advances the state according to

$$\begin{aligned} r_t &= f_{\pi(\chi_t)}(o_t, x_t, \psi_t), \\ (\psi_{t+1}, \rho_{t+1}) &= U_{\text{Mio}}(\psi_t, \rho_t, o_t, x_t, \pi(\chi_t), r_t, c_{\text{exec}}(x_t), \ell(x_t)) \,. \end{aligned} \tag{26}$$

Here $c_{\text{exec}}(x_t)$ and $\ell(x_t)$ are the realized charge and elapsed time for the selected model in Equation (19). The update retains task-relevant information from r_t, records the selected identity and observed usage, and deducts these amounts from the remaining budgets. Model Eval incorporates scored results into a refreshed Ω_i under a compatible protocol with provenance and validity review, following Section 2.2. The next request or subproblem is then combined with this updated context to form χ_{t+1}. Consequently, both task progress and resource consumption can change the next feasible set and model ordering.

Continuing with the same model corresponds to $\pi(\chi_t) = \pi(\chi_{t-1})$; a handoff occurs when the identities differ. The receiving model is provided with the bounded context ψ_t and declared artifacts. Its access, interface, and context requirements are checked again before invocation. Task decomposition and termination remain application responsibilities, and each Mio decision selects a single model.

Combining selection policies. Each participating router receives its declared request features, applicable evidence, and the same feasible pool $C(\chi_t)$. Routing overhead for the combination is reserved before constructing that pool. Only routers that can score every feasible candidate participate in the combination.

Let $\mathcal{R}$ be the active routers, each providing state-conditioned quality scores. Convert each router's scores to descending ranks, using average ranks for ties. The scores below express each router's ordering on a shared $[0, 1]$ scale. For a well-defined singleton case, we use

$$\begin{aligned} \eta_{ri}(\chi_t) &= \begin{cases} 1, & |C(\chi_t)| = 1, \\ \big(|C(\chi_t)| - \text{rank}_r(f_i \mid \chi_t)\big)/\big(|C(\chi_t)| - 1\big), & |C(\chi_t)| > 1, \end{cases} \\ \overline{\eta}_i(\chi_t) &= \sum\nolimits_{r \in \mathcal{R}} \alpha_r \eta_{ri}(\chi_t). \end{aligned} \tag{27}$$

Mio applies the two-stage rule in Equation (25), using $\overline{\eta}_i(\chi_t)$ in place of $\eta_i(\chi_t)$. The near-tie margin is calibrated on development data for the fused rank scores, and resource use determines the final choice within the resulting near-tie set. Weights satisfy $\alpha_r \geq 0$ and $\sum_r \alpha_r = 1$. They are fixed in advance or fitted on development data under a declared objective. Fixed weights can be renormalized after omission; a learned combination needs a validated fallback for the remaining routers. The combination requires $\mathcal{R} \neq \varnothing$. Remaining ties are resolved by a fixed model identifier.

Pool updates and computational cost. Mio records pool, profile, selector, and service versions. Candidate removals can mask selector outputs. For newly admitted or updated models, configurations using the identity embedding $\mathbf{e}_i$ need supporting outcomes to learn or adapt that embedding. For configurations based solely on capability profiles, pool updates include checking that the profile encoder and selector apply to the new model's profile.

With fixed network widths, state encoding runs once and candidate scoring is linear in $|C(\chi_t)|$; exhaustive pair construction during training is quadratic in pool size. Rank fusion additionally sorts each active router's scores and combines them. These costs are separate from profile acquisition, candidate-pool organization, and model invocation.

Relation to the RobustRouteBench evaluation. Section 6.3 reports selector-level quality–cost performance for a fixed pool and a single request ($T = 1$) under monetary budgets.

5 Mos: Model Serving OS for Scheduling and Operation

Mos (Model Serving OS) provides shared execution for model evaluation and application use. Model Eval, Mio, or the caller chooses the model; Mos determines where and when its call executes. As shown in Figures 2 and 4, Mos invokes provider-managed APIs or manages the Self-Managed Model Runtime Hub. Both paths share an invocation contract, while model-file distribution and deployment apply to the self-managed path. Endpoint scheduling preserves model identity; model changes return control to Mio or the caller within remaining budgets.

5.1 SLO-Aware Request Scheduling across Inference Endpoints

An endpoint identifies a provider and serving configuration. Endpoints exposing the same declared model can differ in prices, interfaces, rate limits, latency, and availability, with these properties changing over time [11]. Mos schedules calls among compatible endpoints for the selected model.

The Mos scheduling implementation provides admission control, local capacity accounting, priority-based scheduling, pluggable window-based request reordering policies, SLO-aware assignment, Pareto-based optimal endpoint selection, and execution logging. Workload replay submits different types of requests through Mos according to their timestamps, allowing concurrent execution. Mos makes online scheduling decisions, while execution feedback updates capacity state and informs subsequent performance estimates. Sequential failover is supported over a bounded set of ranked endpoint candidates, subject to failure type and response progress. Optional preview simulations run in isolation from online capacity accounting.

Requests and constraints. A request x carries the selected model, invocation mode, input-token count $n_{\text{in}}(x)$, estimated output length $\widehat{n}_{\text{out}}(x)$, interface requirements, and priority. Generation settings remain in the gateway request. Clients may specify SLO targets; otherwise, the configured provider assigns default end-to-end (E2E) completion targets for non-streaming requests and TTFT and TPOT targets for streaming requests.

The scheduler checks endpoint compatibility, health, cooldown, and remaining local capacity. After further checking the SLO constraints, the scheduler proceeds to select a set of optimal endpoints with Pareto efficiency.

The scheduler uses separate timeouts for SLO computation, queue waiting, and upstream calls. Cost estimates and E2E, TTFT, and TPOT targets guide endpoint screening and ranking. The execution design in Section 2.4 additionally specifies upstream residual allowances and shared budget and deadline enforcement across scheduling, execution, and failover.

Endpoint state and availability. Endpoint configuration records supported models and interfaces, context capacity, prices, requests per minute (RPM), tokens per minute (TPM), and concurrency limits. Runtime state in Mos tracks the local reservations, in-flight calls, health, and cooldown. In addition, our local endpoint runtime state tracker also keeps track of recorded and reported endpoint usage metrics. The bounded history retains outcomes, timestamps, usage, and available latency measurements.

Admission checks compatibility and health, then rechecks hard capacity before dispatch. Capacity accounting applies the configured endpoint limits to requests observed by this Mos instance.

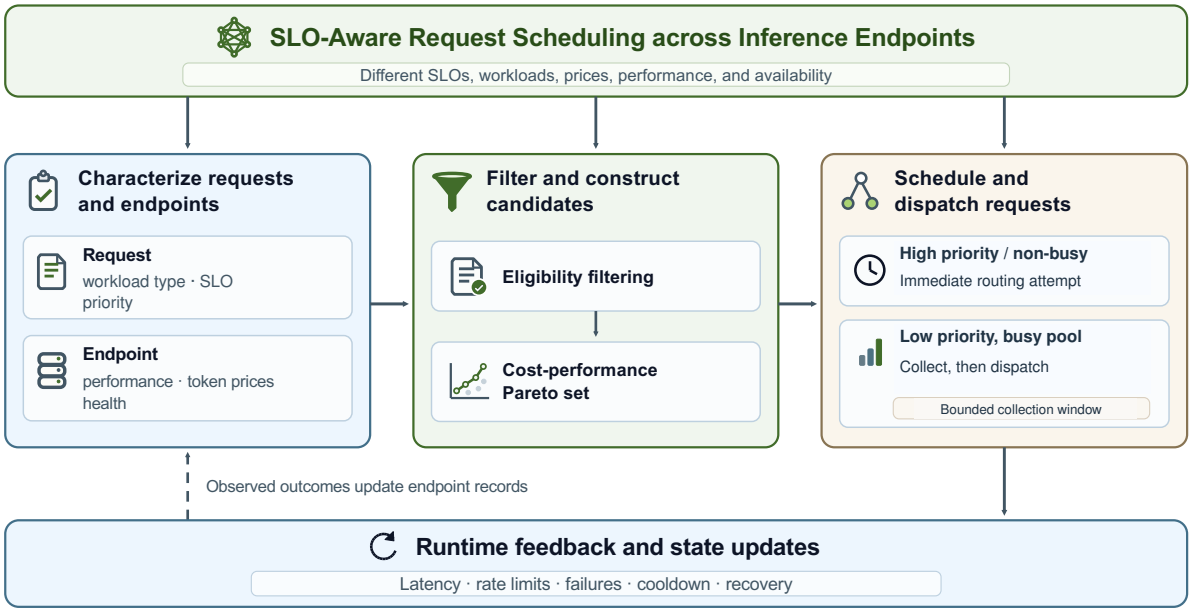


Figure 7. SLO-aware endpoint scheduling with model identity. High-priority requests bypass batch collection; low-priority requests enter a collection window when all eligible endpoints are busy. Endpoint selection combines capacity checks, SLO-aware screening, and Pareto-based ranking, with sequential failover over a bounded set of ranked candidates when the failure type and response progress permit.

Priority and collection windows. Load is assessed over compatible, healthy endpoints before applying hard dispatch limits. An endpoint is busy when RPM or TPM utilization reaches its configured threshold, or occupied concurrency reaches the maximum minus reserved headroom. Reference defaults are 95% for RPM and TPM and three concurrency slots of headroom. Headroom must be configured below the concurrency limit to avoid classifying an idle endpoint as busy. The pool is busy when all eligible endpoints are busy; an empty pool has no available service.

High-priority requests are scheduled over all hard-feasible endpoints immediately, while low-priority requests enter a short collection window when the endpoint pool is busy. The window is released at its size or waiting-time limit. Released requests are ordered by various policies such as weighted-length ordering, and dispatched one at a time, updating reservations before deciding where to dispatch each subsequent request.

The default policy orders requests by weighted token length, using the following score:

$$s(x) = w_{\text{in}} n_{\text{in}}(x) + w_{\text{out}} \widehat{n}_{\text{out}}(x), \qquad w_{\text{in}}, w_{\text{out}} \geq 0, \tag{28}$$

with at least one positive weight. Token counts are used directly without normalization. Ascending order favors shorter weighted lengths; ties retain arrival order. The collection window bounds batch formation time. The scheduling design applies residual deadlines to collection and subsequent capacity waiting and rechecks feasibility at dispatch.

Endpoint selection. For request x and endpoint e, estimated token charge is

$$\widehat{c}_e(x) = \left(n_{\text{in}}(x)c_e^{\text{in}} + \widehat{n}_{\text{out}}(x)c_e^{\text{out}}\right)/10^6, \tag{29}$$

where prices are per million tokens. For endpoint ranking, unavailable token prices are estimated from the mean of known peer prices for the same model and endpoint pool, with the estimation source recorded.

At decision time, endpoint performance is estimated from historical observations matched by model, endpoint, invocation mode, and configured token-length features. Recent and length-nearby observations receive greater weight; the default statistic is a weighted mean. We also keep the state of whether the sample size is sufficient or not. An eligible candidate must have a valid estimated charge, sufficient observed performance evidence, and satisfy the following constraints in our system settings.

$$\hat{L}_{e,k}(x) \le B_k(x), \qquad B_k(x) = m_{\text{SLO}}T_k(x), \qquad 1 \le m_{\text{SLO}} \le 2, \tag{30}$$

for each applicable timing metric k, where $\hat{L}_{e,k}(x)$ is the predicted latency, $T_k(x)$ is the assigned SLO target and the default multiplier is 1.2 in our settings. Non-streaming requests are screened on E2E; streaming requests are screened independently on TTFT and TPOT. If the endpoint lacks any applicable targets, it is excluded. The endpoints that pass this round of screening are considered regular candidates.

Among regular candidate endpoints, the selection policy forms a Pareto frontier of estimated charge and latency loss. For non-streaming calls, latency loss is the predicted E2E divided by the corresponding SLO target. For streaming calls, it is a weighted sum of the TTFT and TPOT ratios to their respective boundaries, with weights η and $1-\eta$, where the default η is 0.5. An endpoint is dominated when another has no greater charge or loss and is strictly better in at least one dimension. Non-dominated endpoints are ranked by a weighted sum of charge divided by the median positive candidate charge and latency loss, using nonnegative weights summing to one. A positive cost scale is declared if all charges are zero. The lowest-scoring frontier endpoint is selected as primary. By default, dominated candidates fill the remaining positions in a ranked list of up to N endpoints, with $N = 3$. If no SLO-screened endpoint qualifies, selection proceeds to a separately marked best-effort tier, considering endpoints with limited performance history first, followed by those without recorded performance measurements. Ranked candidates support sequential failover when the failure type and response progress permit. If no candidate can be selected, Mos returns a scheduling failure so that Mio can decide how to proceed.

Execution feedback and recovery. The implemented feedback path updates the capacity, usage, history, failure, and cooldown state of each endpoint maintained by Mos. By default, Mos allows up to three attempts per request on each endpoint. After these attempts fail, it sends the request to the next available endpoint in the ranked list, if one exists. Mos reports complete failure when all ranked endpoints have failed. Once a response or streaming iterator is returned, Mos considers the handoff successful; failures during subsequent streaming iteration are handled by the upstream components that consume the stream.

5.2 Efficient Model Distribution for Cloud AI Inference

Our system stores downloadable model files in cloud object storage for self-managed inference. During system scale-out, each new inference instance must acquire model files, load parameters, and initialize its backend. Concurrent downloading can compete for network bandwidth while allocated GPUs wait for data. For example, 20 instances reading a complete 40 GB model transfer about 800 GB of data in total. Instance-local caches support reuse on the same server but may not help other instances placed elsewhere.

Shared cache architecture. Figure 8 introduces a distributed cache orchestrated by Fluid [3]. Cloud object storage provides reliable data persistence; the cache holds recently used or pre-warmed model files in memory or on SSDs. Fluid manages cache runtimes and data preparation in Kubernetes; a runtime such as Alluxio or Curvine serves the files to inference instances. Shared reuse reduces repeated object-storage transfers; each instance retrieves the model files it needs through the common cache service.

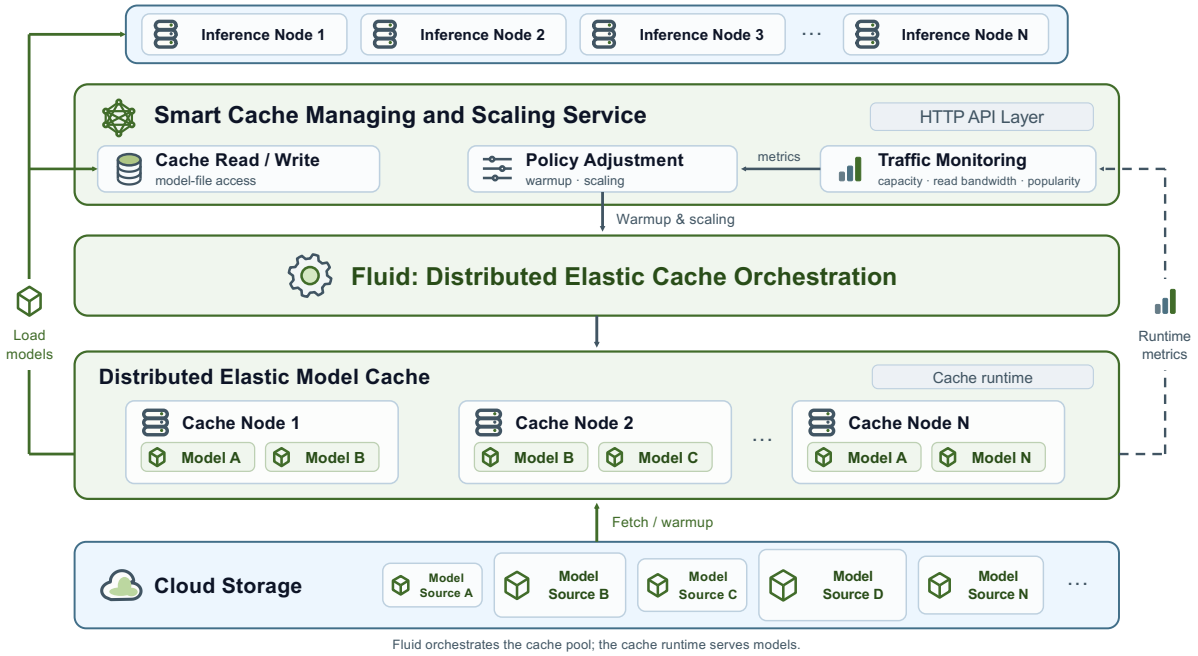


Figure 8. Distributed elastic model cache orchestrated by Fluid.

The *Smart Cache Managing and Scaling Service* provides three functions:

(1) **Cache read/write.** Provides a common file-access path and publishes downloaded files only after integrity checks.
(2) **Traffic monitoring.** Records access frequency, cache hits, read bandwidth, and occupancy.
(3) **Policy adjustment.** Adjusts warmup, retention, eviction, and cache scaling policies using the access and occupancy records collected by traffic monitoring.

Deployment and scaling. The platform checks access and the model revision and determines the required inference resources. The cache service reuses verified cache hits or fetches missing files; concurrent requests for the same data share acquisition.

Computation preparation and cache warmup can run in parallel. Once files are ready, instances read them, load parameters onto GPUs, and pass readiness checks before receiving traffic.

The cache-scaling design adds cache resources when capacity or read bandwidth becomes limiting, then populates them with needed model files. During sustained low load, runtime-supported scale-in preserves required data and replicas. Cache resources and inference nodes scale separately, with model preparation coordinated with instance startup.

6 Empirical Evaluation

We evaluate Mio 1.0 Lite's quality–cost trade-offs, capability characterization, request-level selection robustness on RobustRouteBench, and model-file distribution.

6.1 Mio 1.0 Lite Performance

Evaluation setup. We evaluate Mio 1.0 Lite on nine public benchmarks: AutomationBench (public) [24], PinchBench [19], QwenClawBench [21], BFCL V3 Base Multi-Turn [17], MT-Bench [29], IFBench [20], GPQA Diamond [23], Humanity's Last Exam (w/o tools) [18], and AA-OmniScience (public) [5]. The comparison includes eight fixed models and four routers: OpenRouter Auto Router, its Beta variant, Jev Router, and vLLM Router.

Costs are mean fees per request (USD 1 = CNY 7); Mio sums fees of models actually used in collaboration. Means equally weight nine 0–100 scores (MT-Bench ×10) before rounding.

Overall performance. Mio achieves the highest average score (77.15/100) and lowest average cost (CNY 0.0621 per request). It gains 6.35 points over the highest-scoring baseline, GPT 6.1 Sol, while reducing cost by 94.0%. Against the cheapest baseline, Qwen 3.8 Flash, it gains 14.00 points and reduces cost by 16.4%.

Task-level results. Mio is non-dominated on all nine tasks and leads in score on AutomationBench (public), PinchBench, BFCL V3 Base, IFBench, and GPQA Diamond; BFCL and IFBench also have the lowest cost. On QwenClawBench and AA-OmniScience (public), Mio stays within 0.43 and 0.67 percentage points of the leaders at 95.1% and 85.3% lower cost. On MT-Bench, Mio trades 0.223 points (on 0–10) for 89.7% lower cost; on Humanity's Last Exam (w/o tools), it trades 7.97 percentage points for 97.5% lower cost.

The opening overview plots the nine-benchmark means and three tasks; Figure 9 shows quality–cost scatter plots. Tables 2 to 4 list all 117 score–cost pairs and the nine-benchmark averages.

6.2 Characterizing Models with Less Evaluation

We evaluate the capability-characterization methods in Section 3 through two studies: estimating benchmark scores from limited query observations, and predicting unmeasured domain scores from sparse historical evidence and a few measured anchor scores. Each study uses a fixed model inventory with separate historical models for predictor fitting and held-out models for score estimation. The experimental documentation provides the detailed configurations, evaluation protocols, and implementations.

Query-level protocol. We compare our method, IRT [15], and PSN-IRT [30] using the query-response interface in Section 3.3, alongside Random and Historical mean. Our method combines the conjunctive response model with a learned ability encoder; one encoder pass estimates each evaluation model's ability vector. The three learned methods estimate each benchmark mean by uniformly averaging observed query scores and predictions for unobserved queries.

Random samples uniformly from the full query pool at the same total budget and applies the sample mean to every benchmark. Historical mean uses each benchmark's visible historical responses. Within a run and visibility condition, Historical mean does not depend on the per-model query budget.

The data contain 25 models and 25,504 queries from 18 benchmarks. A fixed temporal split assigns 18 models to historical fitting and seven to evaluation. Five runs use nested masks with 1% and 5% historical visibility; hidden scores are excluded from fitting. Each evaluation model receives 5–40 scored queries across the pool. Under each condition, the learned methods receive identical observations from stratified sampling or a shared set of IRT-selected queries. Historical response functions remain frozen throughout evaluation.

MAE averages absolute errors against full-reference mean scores across the 18 benchmarks;

Table 2. Agentic execution and tool use. Scores are percentages; costs are CNY/request.

Method	Automation		PinchBench		QwenClaw		BFCL V3	
	Score (%)	Cost (CNY)	Score (%)	Cost (CNY)	Score (%)	Cost (CNY)	Score (%)	Cost (CNY)
Mio 1.0 Lite	**53.83**	**0.08**	**96.27**	**0.08**	69.38	**0.17**	**77.50**	**0.02**
DeepSeek V4.1 Flash	49.50	0.58	94.36	0.13	64.69	0.28	55.50	0.14
GLM 5.3 Flash	48.80	0.13	94.27	0.15	56.02	0.20	54.00	0.03
GLM 5.3	48.20	1.54	96.04	1.40	65.32	4.40	56.00	0.27
Qwen 3.8 Flash	49.33	**0.08**	94.73	**0.08**	66.76	0.26	36.00	0.03
Qwen 3.8 Max	27.30	0.91	94.73	1.41	**69.81**	3.37	32.50	0.39
Kimi K3	30.80	1.89	94.43	1.51	64.42	3.54	58.50	0.55
GPT 6.1 Sol	48.00	2.89	93.00	1.26	66.48	2.92	46.50	0.88
Opus 5.5	42.47	4.34	93.94	4.02	64.01	19.06	66.00	0.73
OpenRouter Auto Router	45.50	0.10	94.58	0.14	58.54	0.38	46.00	0.03
OpenRouter Auto Router (Beta)	24.33	0.26	91.34	0.19	56.18	0.33	51.50	0.04
vLLM Router	44.83	0.24	92.19	0.13	58.28	0.21	48.50	0.03
Jev Router	49.83	0.30	91.72	0.37	62.46	1.61	56.50	0.08

Table 3. Knowledge and reasoning. Scores are percentages; costs are CNY/request.

Method	GPQA		HLE		AA-OmniScience	
	Score (%)	Cost (CNY)	Score (%)	Cost (CNY)	Score (%)	Cost (CNY)
Mio 1.0 Lite	**95.96**	**0.02**	53.38	0.13	64.67	**0.01**
DeepSeek V4.1 Flash	90.90	0.09	39.10	0.25	54.50	0.03
GLM 5.3 Flash	91.41	0.03	36.75	**0.09**	40.67	**0.01**
GLM 5.3	92.93	0.48	40.22	1.02	45.00	0.24
Qwen 3.8 Flash	91.70	0.04	35.90	0.13	24.83	**0.01**
Qwen 3.8 Max	92.60	0.44	43.60	1.31	39.33	0.23
Kimi K3	93.50	0.54	43.50	1.93	50.17	0.46
GPT 6.1 Sol	93.43	0.15	52.92	0.54	**65.33**	0.10
Opus 5.5	91.00	1.20	**61.35**	5.03	62.17	0.17
OpenRouter Auto Router	87.88	**0.02**	38.51	0.24	45.83	0.03
OpenRouter Auto Router (Beta)	87.37	**0.02**	35.13	0.28	46.67	0.02
vLLM Router	88.89	0.18	30.44	0.15	29.17	**0.01**
Jev Router	90.91	0.32	47.91	1.07	45.33	0.08

Table 4. Conversation and instruction following, with dataset-equal averages across all nine benchmarks. Scores use 0–10 for MT-Bench, percentages for IFBench, and 0–100 for the mean; costs are CNY/request.

Method	MT-Bench		IFBench		Dataset-equal mean	
	Score (0–10)	Cost (CNY)	Score (%)	Cost (CNY)	Score (0–100)	Cost (CNY)
Mio 1.0 Lite	9.138	0.02	**92.00**	**0.02**	**77.15**	**0.06**
DeepSeek V4.1 Flash	9.050	0.06	77.33	0.06	68.49	0.18
GLM 5.3 Flash	8.780	0.02	67.33	0.03	64.12	0.07
GLM 5.3	8.860	0.26	67.67	0.44	66.66	1.12
Qwen 3.8 Flash	8.780	0.02	81.30	**0.02**	63.15	0.07
Qwen 3.8 Max	9.180	0.20	82.80	0.24	63.83	0.94
Kimi K3	8.880	0.42	76.00	0.40	66.68	1.25
GPT 6.1 Sol	**9.360**	0.24	78.00	0.35	70.81	1.04
Opus 5.5	8.680	0.23	67.00	0.61	70.53	3.93
OpenRouter Auto Router	8.800	**0.01**	69.00	0.03	63.76	0.11
OpenRouter Auto Router (Beta)	8.600	0.02	72.67	0.04	61.24	0.13
vLLM Router	8.430	0.03	74.33	0.06	61.21	0.12
Jev Router	8.975	0.06	74.00	0.08	67.60	0.44

Bold values mark the highest displayed score or lowest displayed cost in each group, including ties.

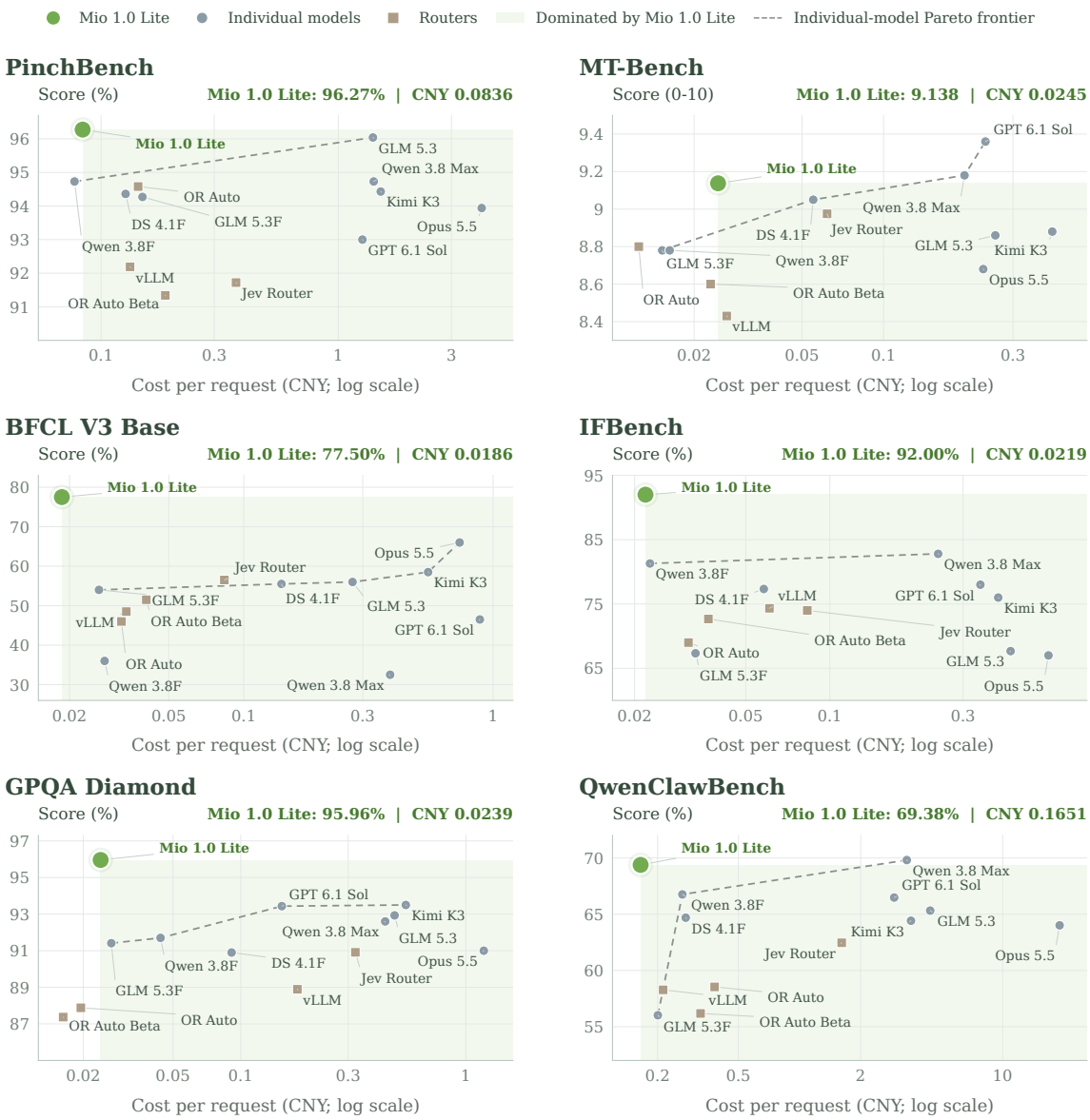


Figure 9. Quality–cost trade-offs on six benchmarks. Costs use logarithmic axes. Shading marks combinations dominated by Mio; dashed lines connect observed individual-model Pareto points.

reported values are averaged equally over five runs, seven models, and three query seeds. In Figures 10 and 11, our method achieves the lowest mean MAE at every displayed budget under both historical visibility levels and selection settings.

Predicting unmeasured domain performance. This experiment compares the cross-domain predictor in Section 3.2 with matrix-completion baselines. Each method receives the same sparse historical score matrix and measured anchor scores for each evaluation model, then predicts its remaining domain scores. Exact measured scores isolate cross-domain prediction from query-level estimation error.

Domain-level protocol. Behavioral clustering defines 32 evaluation domains, each with a fixed query population. One split assigns 30 models to historical fitting and five to evaluation. Domain clustering uses all 35 models, including the five evaluation models seen during development, defining transductive query populations. Four conditions hide 20%, 40%, 60%, or 80% of historical model–domain scores, using one fixed mask per condition. Each visible entry is the

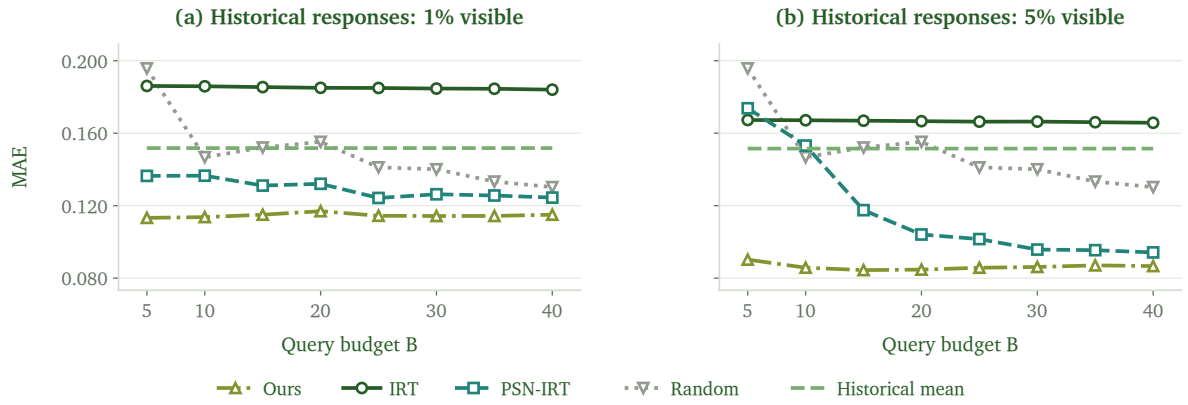


Figure 10. Limited-query score estimation with shared IRT-selected queries on held-out evaluation models. Lower MAE is better.

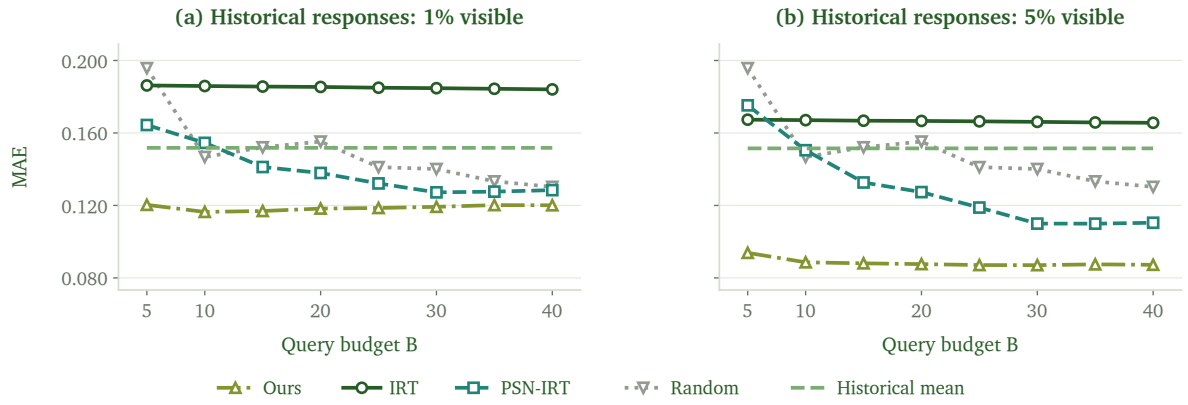


Figure 11. Limited-query score estimation with stratified sampling. Lower MAE is better.

mean over its complete domain query population. Fitting uses visible entries, and scores and predictions lie in $[0, 1]$.

The budget $B \in \{0, 1, 2, 4, 8\}$ counts measured domains per evaluation model. Methods share nested, seeded anchor-domain sets, and measured scores are supplied as exact anchor scores using frozen historical standardization statistics. Historical parameters remain fixed during score prediction; unmeasured scores are used only for evaluation. Three fitting and three selection seeds yield 45 prediction vectors per method, condition, and budget across the same five models.

Compared predictors. Graph is the two-layer score-graph implementation of Section 3.2. History mean uses observed historical domain means, and Mean + offset adjusts them using measured anchor scores. Raw Bias ALS combines additive biases with low-rank interactions in score space. The BenchPress core adaptation uses empirical biases and standardized logit-space ALS[27]. PMF-MAP and PMF-MCMC use probabilistic matrix factorization with fixed Gaussian priors, motivated by performance prediction in Zhao et al. [28]. MAP estimates factors by optimization; MCMC conditions each evaluation model's factors on frozen historical posterior draws. The BenchPress and PMF predictors independently adapt these core methods.

Graph uses two layers of width 16 and 100 training updates, with zero to four noisy anchor scores during training. Evaluation on eight anchor domains extends beyond this training range. Its residual updates, decoder, and masked-edge Huber objective follow Section 3.2. The factorization

baselines use rank two; ALS uses regularization 0.1 and a relative stopping tolerance of 10^{-6}. Each of PMF-MCMC's four chains uses 3,000 burn-in iterations and 2,000 retained draws.

MAE and budget dependence. MAE covers only unmeasured domains. Within each missingness condition, it pools the five models and the fitting and selection repetitions. The budget panel of Figure 12 averages the MAEs across the four missingness conditions with equal weight. Displayed budgets are equally spaced, and both panels report mean MAE. Graph has the lowest average MAE at each nonzero displayed budget. Its MAE decreases from 0.1679 at $B = 1$ to 0.1474 at $B = 8$. At $B = 8$, History mean gives 0.1597, Mean + offset 0.1590, Raw Bias ALS 0.1670, the BenchPress adaptation 0.1615, PMF-MAP 0.1628, and PMF-MCMC 0.1560. Graph's MAE is about 7.7% lower than History mean in this setting.

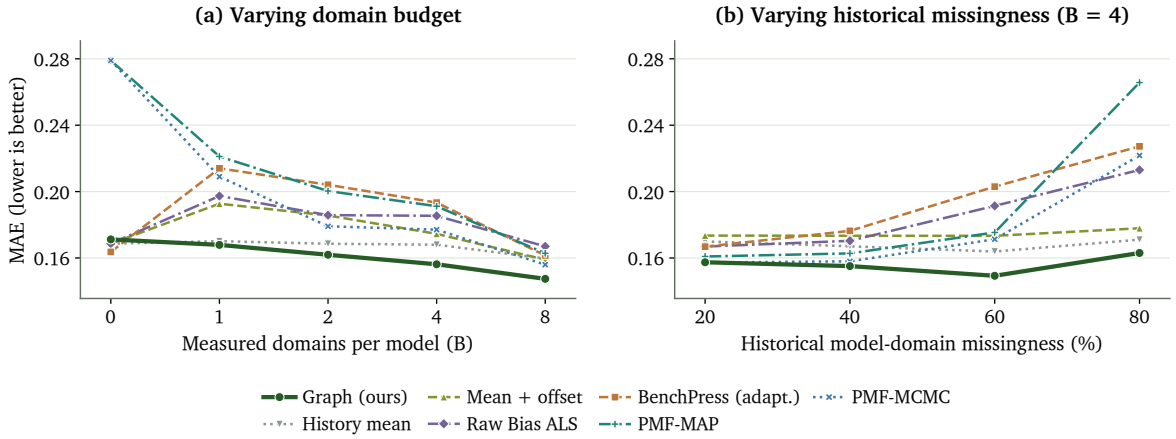


Figure 12. Prediction MAE on unmeasured domains using shared exact anchor scores. (a) Measured-domain budget, averaged equally over four historical missingness levels. (b) Historical model–domain missingness at $B = 4$ measured domains per model. Lower MAE is better.

Dependence on historical missingness. At $B = 4$, within Graph's training range, Graph has the lowest reported MAE at 40%, 60%, and 80% missingness: 0.1551, 0.1493, and 0.1630. At 20%, Graph records 0.1574, close to PMF-MCMC's 0.1573. Each missingness rate uses one fixed mask.

6.3 Model Selection Robustness on RobustRouteBench

We evaluate the fixed-pool, single-request setting ($T = 1$) of the Mio selector (Section 4.2) under monetary budgets against 12 baselines on six Standard/Robust splits spanning General Text, Multimodal, and Chinese (Table 5).

Evaluation setup. Methods use ORBIT's interfaces [10] with shared candidate pools, training/development evidence, and frozen outcomes within each scenario. Within each scenario, Mio and the baselines share candidate pools and evaluation requests, with method-specific configurations. Multimodal training and evaluation use independently constructed datasets. The Multimodal training set is drawn from 18 MMR-Bench-V2 sub-benchmarks [14]. Selectors cannot access held-out utilities, references, or realized costs. Mio is trained separately per scenario and tuned on 500 development requests (400 Standard, 100 Robust). Excluding all development source groups leaves 18,982 test requests. Training and final-test requests use disjoint base-query/source-sample groups within the benchmark sources and task domains. Model-side evidence is learned from benchmark training observations. Utility follows source-task scorers, with failures scored zero. All Multimodal methods use late fusion of frozen CLIP ViT-B/32 features

[22]: full-text chunks and all request images are pooled separately, normalized, and concatenated with equal modality weights. Three fitted runs use the same evaluation requests and candidate pool; General Text and Chinese use one run. The dataset card provides full protocols and results.

Table 5. RobustRouteBench candidate pools, training sizes, and final-test populations after excluding all development source groups.

Scenario	Models	Train	Standard test	Robust test	Robust changes
General Text	63	3,000	3,688	2,894	Semantic rewrite, language variation, long-context noise
Multimodal	45	4,000	4,600	1,900	Text rewrite, context noise, image variation, combined perturbation
Chinese	10	7,590	3,900	2,000	Semantic rewrite, English translation, prefix noise

Metrics. We evaluate 100 evenly spaced nominal budgets between the cheapest and most expensive fixed-model mean costs on each reporting population. These endpoints use held-out costs for evaluator-side budget construction and are shared across methods; they are not training or development statistics. Predicted costs determine feasibility. If no candidate meets the predicted cost budget, the benchmark evaluator selects the model with the lowest predicted cost and retains its measured outcome. Held-out outcomes determine quality.

Normalized AUC (nAUC) is the trapezoidal area under the cumulative-maximum quality curve, divided by the budget range; macro nAUC averages the six split scores equally. Peak quality (Q_{peak}) is the highest curve value. Curves contain only evaluated selector points.

Multimodal runs share each reporting population's nominal budget grid; utility and realized cost are averaged pointwise before taking the cumulative maximum or computing any curve metric. Robust split metrics use the pooled robust request population; each robustness type is evaluated separately on its own budget range, so averaging type-level nAUC values need not recover pooled Robust nAUC. Latency is auxiliary and does not enter the selection objective or impose a hard constraint in this study. For both quality metrics, higher values indicate better selector performance.

Results. Mio selector achieves the highest macro nAUC, 0.6360 versus MLP's 0.6183, and leads General Text Robust and both Multimodal splits (Table 6). Its largest gain over the best baseline is on Multimodal Standard (0.7077 versus 0.6359). Table 6 reports all six split rankings.

Across robustness types, Mio ranks first in both peak quality and nAUC for Text semantic rewrites and long-context noise, and for Multimodal text rewrites, context noise, and image variation (Table 7). Text language variation has the highest peak but second-ranked nAUC; Multimodal combined perturbations rank second in peak and third in nAUC.

6.4 Efficiency of Model Distribution

This experiment evaluates the model-file acquisition stage introduced in Section 5.2. Durable model files remain in cloud object storage, while a Fluid-orchestrated cache serves prewarmed copies to inference instances. The comparison asks how this cache changes model-file read performance when multiple instances load the same model.

Cluster setup and acquisition paths. Experiments were run on a local self-managed six-node Kubernetes cluster with 64 vCPUs and 256 GB of memory per node, connected by a 10 Gbps intranet. Every loading pod had a 2 vCPU limit and read a complete model into its process. The two arms used the same model files and resource allocation. In the OSS arm, each pod read directly from Alibaba Cloud OSS through a shared public egress. In our environment, the

Table 6. RobustRouteBench nAUC across all 13 implementations, ordered by macro nAUC.

Method	General Text		Multimodal		Chinese		Macro nAUC
	Standard	Robust	Standard	Robust	Standard	Robust	
Mio selector	0.5924	**0.5328**	**0.7077**	**0.6128**	0.7653	0.6051	**0.6360**
MLP	0.5884	0.5231	0.6299	0.5918	0.7656	0.6108	0.6183
EmbedLLM-RouteJudge	0.5863	0.5304	0.5510	0.5869	0.7629	0.6087	0.6044
Avengers-Pro	0.6022	0.2865	0.6239	0.5680	0.7660	0.6054	0.5753
Eagle	**0.6045**	0.3359	0.6095	0.5264	0.7642	0.5982	0.5731
Avengers	0.5770	0.2832	0.6064	0.5553	0.7597	0.5801	0.5603
RouteLLM-MF	0.5939	0.2891	0.5914	0.5439	0.7532	0.5724	0.5573
kNN	0.5853	0.2671	0.5846	0.4995	0.7598	0.5694	0.5443
HybridLLM	0.5684	0.2616	0.5385	0.5106	0.7555	0.5721	0.5344
Causal RM-Softmax	0.4969	0.1774	0.6217	0.5477	0.7404	0.5628	0.5245
SVM Router	0.5789	0.2611	0.4869	0.4714	0.7394	0.5499	0.5146
MIRT	0.2771	0.1133	0.6359	0.5638	0.7437	0.5060	0.4733
GraphRouter	0.2468	0.1110	0.5558	0.5038	**0.7675**	**0.6163**	0.4669

Macro nAUC is the unweighted mean of the six split-level nAUC values. Bold scores mark the best value in each column. Multimodal entries are computed from pointwise mean curves over three fitted runs.

Table 7. Mio selector scores and ranks among 13 implementations for each robustness type. Multimodal metrics are computed after pointwise averaging of the three run curves.

Scenario	Robustness type	Q_{peak}	Rank	nAUC	Rank
General Text	Semantic rewrite	0.5124	1	0.4829	1
	Language variation	0.4913	1	0.4487	2
	Long-context noise	0.6747	1	0.6529	1
Multimodal	Text rewrite	0.6455	1	0.6438	1
	Context noise	0.6219	1	0.6021	1
	Image variation	0.6289	1	0.6247	1
	Combined perturbation	0.6099	2	0.5827	3
Chinese	Semantic rewrite	0.6156	5	0.6086	4
	English translation	0.5893	7	0.5802	5
	Prefix noise	0.6375	7	0.6287	5

observed client download speed from OSS ranged from 33.1 to 53.5 MB/s. In the cache arm, complete copies of the same files were served from a prewarmed Fluid-orchestrated cache running Fluid 1.1.0-alpha with Curvine 0.5.2-alpha, deployed with one master and one worker using memory for caching. The experiment covered models of 0.62, 1.52, and 18.84 GB at requested concurrency levels $N \in \{1, 3, 5, 7, 10\}$.

Each model–concurrency–source condition was run three times. We averaged the recorded durations across the three runs before calculating speedup. This averaging reduces the influence of run-to-run variation.

Model dataset. To represent common model-size tiers in the self-managed model-distribution path while covering representative inference workloads, we selected three models spanning OCR, speech-transcript normalization, and multimodal reasoning. hayai-ocr-v2 (0.62 GB; 8 files) combines a SigLIP2 vision encoder with a custom decoder to recognize Japanese, Chinese, Korean, and English text in image crops. s1-mini (1.52 GB; 13 files) is a 0.6B-scale text-normalization

model for speech-to-text output, primarily in English. It converts raw ASR transcripts into natural written text by handling fillers, repetitions and corrections, punctuation and capitalization, and the formatting of numbers, dates, times, monetary amounts, and email addresses. Ornith-1.0-9B (18.84 GB; 18 files) is a multimodal reasoning model for coding agents, designed for software engineering, codebase analysis, terminal tasks, tool use, and visual content understanding; it accepts text, image, and video inputs.

Measured quantities. Each pod reports its read duration T_{pod}. A batch is admitted only when all N requested pods produce validated records. Its completion time T_{batch} is measured by the runner from the common release signal until all validated pod results are collected. Mean loading time is the arithmetic mean of T_{pod} within the batch. Batch speedup is $T_{\text{batch,OSS}}/T_{\text{batch,Fluid}}$, and per-instance speedup is $\overline{T}_{\text{pod,OSS}}/\overline{T}_{\text{pod,Fluid}}$. The cache is prewarmed before timing starts. The measured stage ends with file retrieval into host memory; GPU parameter loading and inference follow this stage.

Model distribution time cost. Figure 13 reports batch completion time for distribution of the three models. Direct OSS access becomes progressively slower as concurrency rises: from $N = 1$ to $N = 10$, batch completion time increases from 13.47 to 122.39 s for hayai-ocr-v2, from 35.24 to 283.97 s for s1-mini, and from 430.89 to 4311.11 s for Ornith-1.0-9B. With Fluid, the corresponding ranges are 5.92–9.52 s, 13.55–19.12 s, and 157.48–193.37 s. The largest model therefore remains slower in absolute terms, but its Fluid completion time stays near three minutes across the tested concurrency levels instead of rising above one hour under direct OSS access. For hayai-ocr-v2, batch completion time under Fluid varies non-monotonically with concurrency. This variation may reflect the greater relative influence of transient bandwidth fluctuations and startup overhead on short reads, together with the amortization of shared startup overhead as the number of concurrent readers increases.

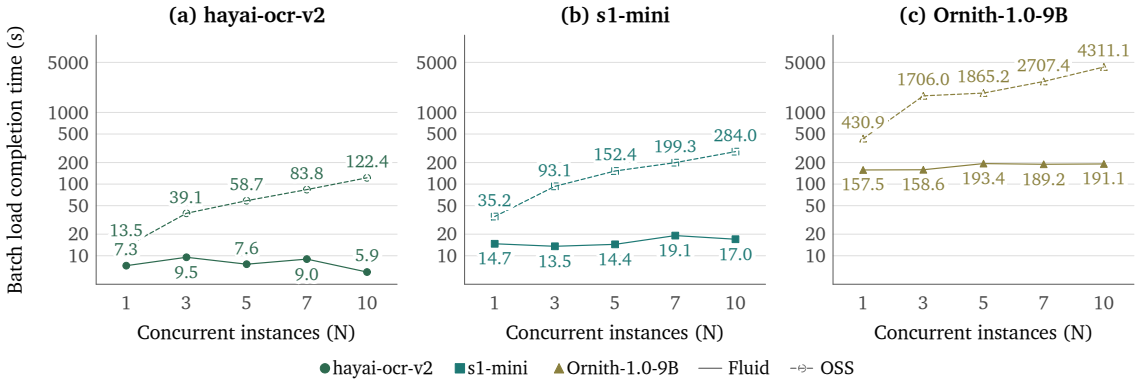


Figure 13. Batch model-loading completion time: direct OSS versus a prewarmed Fluid cache for three models. Solid: Fluid; dashed: OSS. Logarithmic vertical axes; equally spaced concurrency levels.

Figure 14 reports mean pod-read duration. The OSS means increase from 13.47 to 110.96 s, 35.24 to 231.84 s, and 430.89 to 4242.59 s as concurrency rises from 1 to 10. The Fluid means remain within 5.58–7.47 s for hayai-ocr-v2, 12.97–14.69 s for s1-mini, and 157.00–185.17 s for Ornith-1.0-9B. Thus, the cache limits the growth in model-loading time observed when more instances share direct OSS access.

The summary in Table 8 condenses the detailed curves into the magnitude of the observed time reduction. Mean batch speedup ranges from 8.73× to 12.00× across the three models, and mean per-instance speedup ranges from 9.04× to 10.84×. Peak batch and per-instance speedups reach 22.56× and 23.31×, respectively.

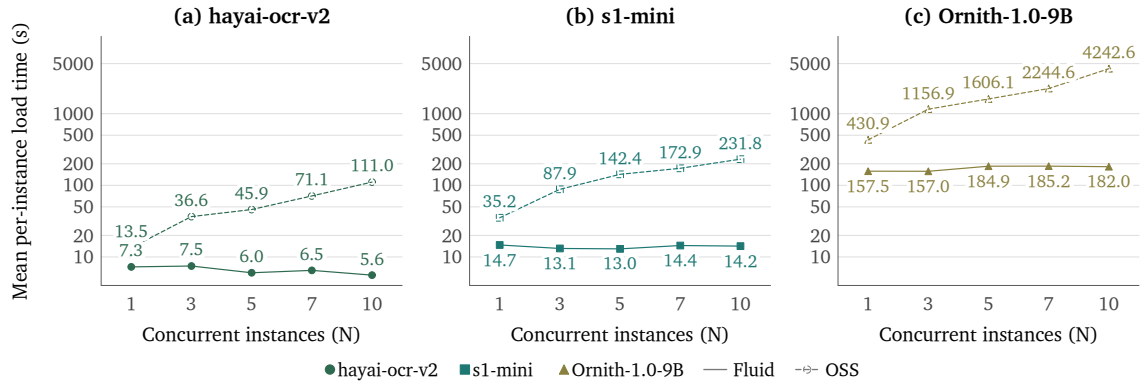


Figure 14. Mean per-instance model-loading time for three models. Solid: Fluid; dashed: OSS. Logarithmic vertical axes; equally spaced concurrency levels.

Table 8. Mean and peak Fluid speedup over direct OSS access.

Model	Batch mean	Per-instance mean	Batch peak	Per-instance peak
hayai-ocr-v2	8.73×	9.04×	20.67×	19.90×
s1-mini	9.39×	9.68×	16.70×	16.36×
Ornith-1.0-9B	12.00×	10.84×	22.56×	23.31×

Note. Mean and peak summarize speedups across the five concurrency levels. Ratios use durations averaged over three runs per model, concurrency, and source configuration.

7 Conclusion and Future Vision

A central implication of this work is that a model's value depends on its role within a collective. Domain expertise, specialized skills, and resource requirements shape where its strengths complement those of other models. A system can draw on that complementarity to develop broader, more integrated intelligence while using resources more efficiently. This report provides an initial foundation for making such relationships measurable and usable, and for advancing Collective AI through model capabilities accumulated across developers and domains.

Our future work pursues two connected objectives. First, we aim to scale the system to a much larger model population, including diverse vertical models specialized for particular domains and tasks. Second, we aim to enable experience-driven collective evolution through recursive self-improvement of the system, using its collective capabilities to diagnose weaknesses, revise its own mechanisms, and validate the changes. Each cycle should strengthen both task performance and the system's capacity for further improvement.

8 Contributions

Within each group, names are listed in alphabetic order by last name.

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